

History

ILHAN NIAZ

INTRODUCTION AND THEMATIC OVERVIEW

Since its independence from the United Kingdom and partition from India in August 1947, Pakistan's historical trajectory has been marked by five major themes. First, political and institutional instability have led to periodic oscillation between civilian and military rule and thus prevented Pakistan from achieving a stable and legitimate political order. Second, amid the alternation of civilian governments, military regimes, and different political systems, Pakistan's administrative institutions and the manner in which power is exercised by the state have become more arbitrary, dysfunctional and ultimately ineffective, leading to a condition of civilian deinstitutionalization and a persistent crisis of governance. Third, Pakistan has been an underachiever in terms of socioeconomic performance among post-colonial states, unable to develop as a developed industrialized state, or manage proper investment in human resource development, periods of high gross domestic product (GDP) growth notwithstanding. Fourth, perceiving itself to be at mortal risk from India, Pakistan has sought to amass military strength and the capacity to project asymmetrical warfare, wedding itself to a national security and foreign policy outlook that is dominated by consideration of India and the perceived threats it poses, and which prioritizes hard power. Fifth, Pakistan's state and society have steadily moved away from the epistemological basis for modern national identity and social order, and instead embraced Islamic theocentrism, thereby narrowing the scope for what, by Western standards at least, constitute rational political discourse, scientific progress and the protection of human rights, while empowering majoritarian and sectarian communalism, which has led in many cases to conflict.

Taken together, the five themes underpinning Pakistan's history have combined to make the country what it is today. Despite being the Muslim world's only nuclear power, and the world's 24th largest economy (measured in purchasing power parity), Pakistan has one of the lowest rates of enrolment of school-age children in the world, and only two Pakistani universities have ever made it to any of the major global rankings of the top 500 learning institutions. Pakistan has a large proportion of youth relative to its population (estimated to total 199.1 million in mid-2017), but its sluggish productivity and lacklustre recent economic performance threaten to turn a demographic dividend into disaster. Pakistan's politics have remained doggedly pluralistic, in spite of periodic military takeovers and religious extremism, but even during periods of democracy the armed forces have enjoyed hyper-autonomy and exercised a veto over all key areas of national policy. The freedom to criticize politicians is widely exercised in Pakistan, but free speech apparently evaporates on matters pertaining to the armed forces and religion, and is often restricted on issues such as labour rights, women's rights and sexual identity. The Pakistani structure of selective pluralism operates alongside a large non-governmental organization sector, an expanding media, growing internet and telecommunications connectivity, and a significant if qualitatively uncompetitive higher education sector.

In historical terms, Pakistan's evolution as a polity has been fundamentally affected by the pre-colonial and colonial past, as well as the responses of state élites to the challenges of state-building generated by the freedom movement and the Partition of the British Empire in India. Understanding how the traumatic events of Pakistan's first decade influenced the fateful choices made by the last generation of British Indian, and the first generation of Pakistani, leaders is the subject of the next two sections.

THE INITIAL CHALLENGES OF STATE-BUILDING IN PAKISTAN, 1947–53

Table 1: Governors-General of Pakistan

Mohammad Ali Jinnah	15 Aug. 1947–11 Sept. 1948
Khawaja Nazimuddin	11 Sept. 1948–17 Oct. 1951
Malik Ghulam Muhammad	17 Oct. 1951–7 Aug. 1955
	7 Aug. 1955–23 March 1956 (24 March 1956–27 Oct. 1958 as President)
Iskander Mirza	

Table 2: Prime Ministers of Pakistan, 1947–58

Liaquat Ali Khan	15 Aug. 1947–16 Oct. 1951
Khawaja Nazimuddin	17 Oct. 1951–17 April 1953
Muhammad Ali Bogra	17 April 1953–12 Aug. 1955
Chaudhry Muhammad Ali	12 Aug. 1955–12 Sept. 1956
Hussain Shaheed Suhrawardy	12 Sept. 1956–17 Oct. 1957
Ibrahim Ismail Chundrigar	17 Oct. 1957–16 Dec. 1957
Feroz Khan Noon	16 Dec. 1957–7 Oct. 1958

South Asia has traditionally alternated between imperial order and warring states. For much of the region's history, warring states have proliferated, while, for relatively brief interludes, imperial regimes have been able to exercise supreme hegemony, if not always direct territorial control. The territories that came to comprise Pakistan were the historic, geographic and demographic peripheries of South Asia, and had gradually been brought under British paramount suzerainty between 1757 and 1858. West Pakistan (as modern-day Pakistan was known upon independence in 1947, to distinguish it from East Pakistan, which subsequently seceded to become the independent state of Bangladesh) was carved out of the turbulent frontier marches of the Raj, large parts of which were never fully pacified and were perceived as vulnerable to foreign invasion and subversion. These fears were not idle fantasies as, between 1000 CE and 1800, at least 70 major invasions of the trans-Indus region had taken place, as well as innumerable smaller raids and rebellions. The British had annexed some of these territories late in their imperial expansion (Sindh 1843; Punjab 1849) and ruled much of the territory by reaching settlements with local potentates. At the opposite end of the Raj (as the British Empire in India was colloquially known) was East Bengal, which served as an impoverished rural hinterland that furnished Calcutta (now Kolkata) with raw materials and British India with its greatest monuments to imperial callousness, particularly the Great Bengal Famines that heralded the onset and sunset of the Raj (1769–70; 1943–44).

Throughout South Asian imperial history, keeping control of Bengal and its teeming population had been a major concern for those invested in the maintenance of paramount power. The British also found retaining control of Bengal a great challenge and it was from there that both Indian composite nationalism and Muslim nationalism would emerge. From the Muslim nationalist perspective, the British had succeeded the Mughal dynasty, and the administrative and political unity imposed by the colonial Raj ought not to be confused with national unity. The end of the Raj would require a transfer of power to the regions marked by communal majorities either in the form of a loose confederation (the so-called Cabinet Mission Plan proposed by a delegation sent to India by the British Government in 1946, which proposed the maintenance of Indian unity upon independence) or in the form of two (or more) independent states whereby the Muslim-majority areas would constitute Pakistan. The demand for Pakistan received overwhelming support in the 1946 elections, which saw the All-India Muslim League carry more than 80% of the Muslim vote. When the Indian National Congress reneged on its commitment to the Cabinet Mission Plan, the Muslim League resorted to Direct Action in Calcutta, triggering the opening scene of large-scale communal violence that escalated by mid-1947 into a peoples'

war of imperial succession, compelling the British to 'Partition and Quit' sooner rather than later.

The emergence of Pakistan thus unfolded in a manner different from most other cases of decolonization where an existing colony changed status and rulers. In Pakistan's case, the maps had to be redrawn in light of communal and electoral realities, a massive exchange of population estimated at 14 million individuals took place, and the new state was plunged into diplomatic and military conflict with its Indian counterpart almost immediately after independence from the UK was achieved on 14 August 1947. For Pakistan, nearly every aspect of statehood and society had to be set up from scratch. Karachi was made the temporary capital of Pakistan; civil and military personnel who had sworn allegiance to the new state of Pakistan and foresworn loyalty to India were evacuated by land, air and sea as quickly as possible, and military preparedness was made a priority. The expectation that Pakistan might collapse under the strain appeared reasonable, given that in 1947 there were only several dozen Muslim civil servants in the All-India Services who opted to serve Pakistan, and only around 600 Muslim military officers, of whom only a handful were of any seniority. Fewer than 50 civil servants were believed to have had experience at policymaking levels. This small cohort of administrative officers had to run a country divided into two wings separated by 1,600 km of Indian territory. Furthermore, a dispute arose with dividing the financial assets (and foreign debt), which was resolved only at the insistence of India's independence leader Mahatma Gandhi, who overruled independent India's first premier Jawaharlal Nehru, who had wanted to resolve the Kashmir question before awarding Pakistan any funds, lest it be used to purchase armaments to be used against India. In addition, India did not give Pakistan its allocated share of military equipment that had been earmarked for the newly formed Pakistani armed forces.

The scale of the communal disturbances was greater for Pakistan than for India. Some six million non-Muslims left West Pakistan, with a population of some 30 million in 1947, while seven million Muslim refugees sought sanctuary in the new state, having fled from India, during 1947–48. Those who left West Pakistan represented many members of the business élite and middle class, which was drawn from the Hindu and Sikh communities, while those who came to Pakistan were by and large uneducated peasants. The outbreak of armed conflict with India from October 1947 over the disposal of the princely state of Jammu and Kashmir, combined with profound frustration with the boundary commission award for Punjab, which resulted in major irrigation headworks used by Pakistan falling under Indian control on the other side of the border, meant that Pakistan's founders felt besieged on all sides and had only hard choices to make, which, in turn, would help set Pakistan's historical trajectory, and undermine smooth development into a successful state.

The overriding priority was building the armed forces, developing military infrastructure along the border with India, and administrative consolidation. Mohammad Ali Jinnah and Liaquat Ali Khan, the founding Governor-General and Prime Minister, respectively, adopted a state-building strategy centred on allocating two-thirds of Pakistan's budgetary resources to the military. These resources were generated by the centralization of revenue collection in 1948 and by use of the Rs 550m. worth of abandoned property left by fleeing non-Muslims. In order to dispense with the British presence in the armed forces, the Government opted for rapid nationalization of the military, which aimed to replace all British army officers retained after 1947 with Pakistani ones by January 1951. The premier chaired the Defence Committee of Cabinet, held the defence portfolio, and personally handled the appointments and promotions of military officers under the nationalization policy. The heavy resource allocations would swiftly turn the military into Pakistan's most formidable institution, while the policy of rapidly promoting Pakistanis to senior positions would lead to the collapse of the British Indian policy of insulation of the army from politics, leading to the Rawalpindi Conspiracy of 1951, the first, albeit unsuccessful, attempt at a military coup.

However, building up the military was not going to be sustainable without economic growth and industrialization. The new country, ignoring the views of its British financial adviser, moved swiftly to develop a policy framework for industrialization, and systematically redeployed the assets left behind by Hindu and Sikh businessmen and landlords to kickstart economic development and create a specifically Pakistani commercial class. This was accompanied by the commencement of central economic planning in 1948, and by the following year some 200 federally funded projects were at different stages of approval and implementation. The basic approach adopted was that the state would furnish capital and incentives to help develop the private sector, which would lead the economic growth process, in contrast to the socialist approach adopted by neighbouring India. A critical aspect of the Pakistani economic growth policy was that it did not seek to bring about land reforms in West Pakistan, but rather sought to co-opt the landlords, while in East Bengal, where popular dynamics were different, the hated Permanent Settlement of 1793, which fixed the level of revenue to be raised from the land, enormously in favour of the British colonizers, was abolished in 1951.

Pakistan's founders thus set the country two ambitious goals. One was the accumulation of sufficient military strength to impose a balance of power in South Asia on a far larger adversary (India). The other was to sustain rapid economic growth with the objective of achieving industrialization. In institutional terms, these goals required the strengthening of the military, the civilian bureaucracy, and creating a new business and industrial élite. Materially, however, it was clear that Pakistan did not have the resources to simultaneously engage in military competition with India and make the necessary investments in industrialization. This meant that Pakistan would need external support, and in the context of the emerging Cold War between the USA and the Union of Soviet Socialist Republics (USSR) in the late 1940s and early 1950s, the Western bloc was the most promising source of military, economic and technical assistance. Pakistan's leaders had little interest in US Cold War objectives, but had the sense to play along with the growing paranoia in Washington, DC and draw benefit from India's neutral foreign policy, which left Pakistan as the only valuable South Asian piece on the US side of the chessboard. Pakistan's tilt to the West would thus be a conscious product of its grand strategy vis-à-vis India, and sustained by apparently credible fears that the Indian leadership had not accepted the communal verdict of 1946–47 as final, and still held out hopes for a single Indian nation undivided by religion, ethnicity or caste.

While embarking on this strategy, the ruling party in Pakistan (the Muslim League) faced mounting challenges to its internal cohesion. Jinnah's death in September 1948 and Liaquat Ali Khan's assassination in October 1951 removed the only two leaders of genuinely national stature from the political scene. The splintering of the Muslim League into rival factions was evident soon after Jinnah's death, and reflected in Liaquat Ali Khan's tendency to equate political dissent with disloyalty to the state. The Muslim League leadership, setting aside Jinnah's advice, decided to introduce the Objectives Resolution in March 1949. This resolution spelled out that Pakistan would be a state in which all laws would be made in conformity with the Koran and the traditions of the Prophet Muhammad. It was done in order to rally support for the Government on the basis of Islamic identity, and marked a fundamental epistemological break from the state secularism of British India. This move also generated confusion among non-Muslims, who were about 20% of the population of East Bengal, and led many religious conservatives, who had opposed the creation of Pakistan, to project themselves as the authentic guardians of the 'Islamic' ideology of the new state. In practical terms the resolution did not speed up constitution-making, and in October 1951 the Constituent Assembly was still discussing basic principles after having sat for over four years. The political leadership further delegitimized itself by resorting to administrative interference in the 1951 provincial elections in Punjab where, according to official estimates, the results of 50 seats were affected in favour of the ruling party.

The combination of delay in constitution-making, the growing clout of the civil service and military, and dismay in state élite circles that the politicians were relying on religion to perpetuate themselves in power, and, in doing so, raising expectations that could not be reasonably fulfilled, produced a rift between the political and bureaucratic leadership. Pakistan's Secretary to the Ministry of the Interior bluntly warned premier Khawaja Nazimuddin in March 1952 that if the politicians did not stop treating the state like a personal estate while engaging in dangerous games with religious fundamentalists, Pakistan would risk degenerating into primitive conditions. The expected explosion came in March 1953 with the outbreak of sectarian violence against the Ahmadiyya Muslim community in Punjab. This led to the imposition of martial law in Lahore for two months, the dismissal of the Punjab Government, and, on 17 April, the ouster of the Prime Minister. The figure at the heart of these successful intrigues against Pakistan's politicians was the Governor-General, Malik Ghulam Muhammad, a former civil servant who, with the support of like-minded civilian and military officers and judges, would lay the foundations of a bureaucratic governing corporation that would rule Pakistan until March 1969.

THE GOVERNING CORPORATION: CIVIL-MILITARY BUREAUCRATIC RULE, 1953–58

The civil-military bureaucratic regime that seized power in April 1953 was determined to engineer efficient solutions to the challenges faced by Pakistan. Led by the governor-general, the regime enjoyed the full support of General Ayub Khan who had, in January 1951, become the first Pakistani commander-in-chief of the Pakistan Armed Forces. The challenges identified by the regime were the need to break the constitution-making deadlock, solving the representative problems that arose from Pakistan's geographic and demographic profile, sealing the emerging mutual defence deal with the USA (which was formalized by treaty in 1954), and managing the appearance of multi-party democracy.

Insofar as the constitutional deadlock was concerned, the first Constituent Assembly had sat in October 1947 but did not seem to be moving beyond debating basic principles, even as 1952 progressed. The Constituent Assembly was widely believed to be delaying the process in order to extend its own life. Indeed, it did not seem to have trouble passing laws, 46 of which were passed and implemented even without the assent of the governor-general. Elected on the basis of limited franchise, and having sat for over five years, the democratic legitimacy of the Constituent Assembly was doubtful. The governor-general resolved to take matters into his own hands and on 27 October 1954 dissolved the Assembly. This was challenged in the Sindh Chief Court where the verdict came in favour of the Constituent Assembly. The central Government appealed the decision to the Supreme Court, where Chief Justice Muhammad Munir creatively applied the doctrine of individual necessity to the governor-general's actions and declared in favour of the dissolution. This paved the way for a new Constituent Assembly to be convened, with a former civil servant, Chaudhry Muhammad Ali, appointed as Prime Minister to push through a new constitution. This meant that bureaucratic minds would at last be able to devise rational solutions to the problems that vexed the politicians.

Much of this vexation stemmed from Pakistan's territorial and population distribution. West Pakistan, with about 45% of the population, accounted for 85% of Pakistan's territory. West Pakistan was further divided into different types of entities. There were four provinces (Punjab, Sindh, North-West Frontier Province—NWFP—and Balochistan), Federally Administered Tribal Areas (FATA), Provincially Administered Tribal Areas, the Baluchistan States Union, the princely states of Bahawalpur, Khairpur, Swat, Dir and Chitral, Pakistan's portion of the disputed territory of Kashmir (called Azad or 'Free' Jammu and Kashmir—AJK), and the Capital Territory (Karachi). While West Pakistan had 14 major sub-units, East Bengal, with 55% of the national population and 15% of the territory, was a single province with one dominant ethnicity and language. The solution adopted was to turn West Pakistan minus AJK into a single province with its capital at Lahore,

establish equal parliamentary representation for each wing, with East Bengal renamed East Pakistan, and a 40% quota for civil service recruitment for East Pakistanis. These changes were rapidly effected in 1955 and a new constitution was moved through the Second Constituent Assembly in haste, taking effect on 23 March 1956, which is celebrated annually as Pakistan Day.

On the foreign policy front, the regime moved to secure an alliance with the United States and thus consummate the courtship that had begun under Jinnah. The formal alliance was signed on 19 May 1954 as the Mutual Defense Assistance Agreement. Pakistan would receive as a consequence of this agreement almost US \$1,000m. of military equipment, enabling Pakistan to raise a new armoured division, equip six squadrons with US jet fighters, add 12 warships to its navy, modernize its military communications system, and train its armed forces to a high standard. This assistance reinforced the pattern of governance and national strategy adopted during the lean years of 1947–55, when Pakistan survived while relying almost exclusively on its own resources.

Managing politicians and democracy was an altogether different challenge. The possibility of a combined opposition to the regime was keenly felt and the forcible merger of the four provinces in the western wing into the so-called 'One Unit' in West Pakistan (in order to achieve something approaching parity with the more highly populated eastern wing) had the effect of galvanizing sub-national movements, which found themselves denied even a provincial identity. President Iskander Mirza was convinced that his chance of staying in power in the event of fresh national elections was less than 10%. Mirza manoeuvred his way through four prime ministers (including Chaudhry Muhammad Ali from the Muslim League, and H. S. Suhrawardy of the Awami League) and in September 1956 he founded and became Chairman of the Republican Party, which split from the Muslim League due to disagreements over matters of republicanism and conservatism. When Mirza's last Prime Minister under the 1956 Constitution, Feroz Khan Noon, broke with him and attempted to bring about a revival of the Muslim League, the situation reached a crisis point. Seeking and securing the support of Gen. Ayub Khan (who was still commander-in-chief of the army, having made himself indispensable) in order to stage a coup d'état, Mirza abrogated the constitution on 7 October 1958. Gen. Ayub Khan was appointed Chief Martial Law Administrator (CMLA), and the avowed aim of the coupmakers was to establish a form of democracy 'suitable to the genius' of Pakistan's people. As an interim measure, the ordinary provisions of the abrogated constitution were to remain in effect and the civilian courts would administer martial law regulations under the supervision of the CMLA. Mirza appeared to think that he could carry on as before, draft a new constitution to his liking, and then remain President after it was approved. The military, however, was by this time tired of playing second fiddle to civilian and military bureaucrats-turned-politicians, and tensions between the President and his chief enforcer rose rapidly. On 27 October 1958 Mirza was overthrown by the army and exiled to the UK. With this change Pakistan came under direct army rule and the equilibrium within the governing powers shifted in favour of its military component.

THE AYUB KHAN ERA, 1958–69

The Ayub Khan era is often viewed as Pakistan's most successful and promising, with the benefit of hindsight. During this time, Pakistani GDP more than doubled. A massive re-engineering of the Indus basin, made feasible by the settlement of the waters dispute with India on fair terms, commenced. The so-called Green Revolution in agriculture began under the Ayub Khan regime, greatly helped by technical advice and support from the USA. Pakistan surged ahead on the industrial front and had become the largest manufacturing country in the Muslim world by 1965. Contrary to the populist critique that argued that the poor were getting poorer under Ayub amid the emergence of a new class of industrialists, the poorest fifth of the population saw their share of the national wealth increase from 6% to 8%—a critical gain that was reversed during the subsequent period of experimentation with social-

ism and a command economy under Zulfikar Ali Bhutto (President 1971–73, Prime Minister 1973–77). The modernization of Pakistan's armed forces created a formidable concentration of military strength in West Pakistan, threatening northern India and causing chronic concern among Indian élites ever since. Pakistan's friendly relations with the People's Republic of China, Iran, Turkey, Saudi Arabia, the Gulf States, Sri Lanka and the Western bloc translated into a level of diplomatic clout never to be subsequently equalled. Internally, the Ayub Khan regime saw itself as a modernizing dictatorship that would firmly deal with both communist and religious fundamentalist opposition. Politically conservative, but socially liberal and economically pragmatic, the Ayub Khan era is wistfully remembered as a time when Pakistan was a 'normal' country, open and inviting to foreigners, equipped with all the modern trappings of the West (nightclubs, casinos, bars, liberated women), and a strong state apparatus apparently capable of maintaining order and delivering progress. In 1959 Ayub Khan laid the foundations of Pakistan's new capital, Islamabad, and in 1961 the Muslim Family Laws were amended, to the horror of religious conservatives, to allow women the right to seek divorce, while the institutional foundations of the country's atomic power (and latterly weapons) programme would be greatly expanded with the construction of heavy water production facilities in 1962 and the training of 600 Pakistani researchers in different branches of nuclear science in the late 1960s. Ayub Khan appeared convinced that the people would respond favourably to his benevolent despotism, which allowed for some political participation at the local government level through the election of 80,000 Basic Democrats, who, in turn, constituted the Electoral College for the presidency under the 1962 Constitution. Ayub Khan's paternalism and performance did not, however, impress or convince his critics and opponents. That the dictator's family became one of the 22 wealthiest in Pakistan even though they were of middle-class origin, rather than landed feudal stock, raised questions that the regime could not answer. Serious political difficulties dogged the regime and the bureaucratic thinking that dominated it was poorly equipped to respond to political manoeuvring. Unlike many of his contemporary autocrats, Ayub Khan did not have the stomach for systematic and sustained violent repression of his enemies, which may well have prolonged his stay in power.

Ayub Khan's regime depended heavily on the support of the Civil Service of Pakistan (CSP) component of the higher bureaucracy for governance. The CSP adjusted quickly to its role as the junior partner of the military ruler and was used by Ayub to manage the political system. This would lead to a situation where the CSP was identified as an extension of the regime and its dominance of the bureaucratic structure would lead to polarization within the apparatus, as other services and specialists chafed under the control of a single cadre. This external identification and internal polarization would contribute greatly to the backlash against the civil service that began when Ayub was forced from power in 1969. The CSP pursued centralization of decision-making and enjoyed a near monopoly of top positions in the central bureaucracy (90%), a sizeable majority of key positions at the provincial level (70%), and an equal number of important positions at the district/field level (50%). While competent administrators, the civil servants made for poor politicians and were largely unwilling to part with the policy of administrative and fiscal centralization to which they owed much of their power. This left the Ayub regime extremely vulnerable to opposition from ethnic nationalists in East Pakistan and in parts of West Pakistan, as well as to left-wing populists who decried the élitism of the regime's economic policies. The convergence of these two trends in the Awami League led by Sheikh Mujibur Rahman posed a serious risk to the federation by 1966, and the emergence of the Islamic Socialist Pakistan Peoples' Party (PPP) in 1967, led by Zulfikar Ali Bhutto, Ayub Khan's former Minister of Foreign Affairs, heralded the advent of a new generation of politicians and politics.

In 1948, as Pakistan fought for its existence, the Government centralized revenue collection and financial allocations. Prior to this, the provinces had collected a variety of taxes that accounted for 40%–45% of all revenues. After March 1948 the

centre collected an estimated 85%–92% of all taxes. This meant that provincial governments needed expanded federal funding. The centre set up the so-called federal divisible pool (now known as the National Financial Commission award) from which provinces would get funds. The trouble was that as East Bengal/East Pakistan had 55% of the population and generated about the same proportion of tax receipts, the provinces/One Unit (after 1955) in West Pakistan, clamoured for more investment on the basis of factors other than population. The sense of economic injustice in East Pakistan was understandable as the province accounted for more than half of state revenues, but 80% of state expenditure was made in West Pakistan. Although East Pakistanis came to comprise a greater portion of the CSP (around 35% by 1965), their presence in the armed forces was less than 10%, and they were generally excluded from decision-making in Ayub Khan regime. There were some senior civil servants, like A. G. N. Kazi, who took issue with the way in which East Pakistan was being treated and advocated the restoration of provincial powers of taxation and the scaling down of the divisible pool (in 1962), but such voices were ignored. The fact was that the governing corporation derived much of its power from the centralization of finances and administration, and while the emergency situation of 1948 had long passed, as had financial stringency thanks to inflows from the West, the regime continued to proceed on inertial momentum. A major source of the imbalance between resource allocation was due to defence expenditure, which were being incurred in accordance with a strategic doctrine so immature that it is almost inconceivable that it was articulated and implemented by an otherwise professional military.

In terms of military doctrine, the Ayub Khan era saw the consolidation of the perspective that the defence of East Pakistan lay in the West. What this meant was that Pakistan could deter Indian aggression against East Pakistan by concentrating its numerically inferior military in West Pakistan. This would give Pakistan the option of invading India in the North if it attacked Pakistan in the East. As a consequence of the availability of US equipment and training facilities, the Pakistani military grew steadily more confident in its ability to inflict a defeat on India in a limited war. India's poor showing in the 1962 border war with China and its uninspiring performance in the Rann of Kutch incident with India in 1965, turned this confidence into hubris. Ayub was of the view that 'Hindu morale' would collapse after a few operational blows had landed on India. Pakistan's decision to attempt to destabilize Indian-held Kashmir and fight a limited war that would end in victory and decide the dispute in Pakistan's favour, did not even contemplate what would happen if India decided to strike across the international border. When that attack took place in September 1965 Pakistan was caught by surprise and fought India to an unsustainable stalemate where logistical unpreparedness meant that prolongation of the conflict could have spelled strategic disaster. The India-Pakistan talks brokered by the USSR led to the Tashkent Declaration in early 1966, which reaffirmed the status quo, causing some confusion in Pakistan where the war had been portrayed as a great victory. Above all, the 1965 war demonstrated the folly of the prevalent military doctrine. West Pakistan was barely able to defend itself and were it not for considerable bumbling on the Indian side and tactical brilliance at the lower levels of the Pakistani military, a complete military defeat could easily have been the result. Some officers, such as Maj.-Gen. Rao Farman Ali, argued that the old doctrine had to be abandoned and a completely new scheme of defence worked out—one that would give East Pakistan the ability to defend itself. These views would be ignored and the old doctrine continued to hold sway until it met its end with the secession of East Pakistan.

The regime's truculence towards India in 1965 was not inevitable. In fact, the greatest success of the Ayub era was the Indus Waters Treaty signed with India in 1960. Brokered and guaranteed by the World Bank, this treaty ensured that Pakistan secured 80% of the water flow of the Indus river system, while India received the right to exploit the three eastern tributaries. India also had to pay Pakistan US \$140m., which, along with World Bank funds and Pakistan's own contribution, led to the creation of a \$1,000m. financial

resource that was used to develop the Indus basin. To this day, the Ayub Khan-era water and power infrastructure form the backbone of Pakistan's agricultural economy. Critically, the treaty represented a successful third-party mediation of an India-Pakistan dispute. The treaty, moreover, could not be terminated. It could only be replaced or amended, by mutual consent, and it has survived military conflicts in 1965, 1971, 1999 and multiple skirmishes and periods of high tension.

The downfall of the Ayub Khan regime would arise from its limited understanding of politics. In late 1964 the opposition parties joined forces and fielded Fatima Jinnah, the sister of Mohammad Ali Jinnah, as their presidential candidate. The election was held in February 1965 and entailed a vote by the 80,000 Basic Democrats—40,000 from each wing. The Ayub Khan regime used the state machinery to restrict campaigning to only 30 days, with official campaigning limited to the electors. By most accounts, Fatima Jinnah, revered as the *Madr-i-Millat* (Mother of the Nation), and invoking Jinnah's person and prestige, was the more popular of the two candidates. Ayub Khan's victory in the election was unconvincing and demonstrated how little public support he actually had. 28,800 of the electors voted for Fatima Jinnah, while 51,200 voted for Ayub Khan. The CSP was mobilized to deliver favourable results from the rural areas of West Pakistan. It also demonstrated the inherent problem with Ayub Khan's desire for constitutional and political legitimacy through a managed indirect democracy. Unlike the Shah of Iran or President Suharto in Indonesia or the leaders of various communist regimes, Ayub Khan did not preside over an intrusive and brutal police state, and his British Indian training and personal temperament militated against turning Pakistan into that kind of state.

The surprisingly strong performance of Fatima Jinnah in a blatantly rigged election showed up the fragility of the Ayub Khan regime and soon led to multiple challenges. The most serious came from the Awami League, which, in 1966 articulated its Six Point programme and launched an eponymous movement to achieve it. The points were that: i) Pakistan ought to be a parliamentary democracy with universal adult franchise; ii) only defence and foreign affairs would be handled by the centre; iii) East/West Pakistan would have separate inter-convertible currencies with a Reserve Bank established in Dhaka, the capital city of East Pakistan; iv) powers of taxation ought to be devolved to the provinces; v) the foreign exchange earnings of the two wings would be kept separate; and vi) East Pakistan required a proper military/paramilitary force for its defence and the naval headquarters ought to be shifted to its territory. With East Pakistan in ferment, West Pakistan politics also experienced major change with the founding of the PPP in November 1967. Although closer to the military on some issues compared to the Awami League, the PPP was anti-Ayub Khan and sought the downfall of his regime, falsely accusing it of a 'secret agreement' at the end of the 1965 war that betrayed Pakistan's interests. The growth of opposition in both wings meant that by 1968, as Ayub Khan sought to celebrate a 'Decade of Development', the political situation was spinning out of control. Student protests in major cities, unrest over the perceived economic inequity of the regime's policies, questions about Ayub's declining health, and loss of support for the Government within the armed forces, all contributed to the evaporation of the Government's authority. Initially, Ayub Khan thought it better to negotiate, but by mid-March 1969 it was clear that the army chief, Gen. Yahya Khan, was no longer supporting the President. Rather than risk further bloodshed and realizing that he could not govern without the political backing of the armed forces, Ayub Khan resigned on 25 March, transferring power to the army chief and in the process placing Pakistan under martial law.

THE BREAK-UP OF PAKISTAN, 1969–71

Yahya Khan's assumption of power in March 1969 led to the expectation that a transition to democracy would take place. The new ruler projected himself as a professional soldier with no interest in politics beyond ensuring fresh elections and a transfer of power to elected representatives. Yahya Khan's brief reign would bring about the most catastrophic develop-

ment in Pakistan's short history—the secession of East Pakistan.

The new regime signalled the end of the governing corporation—the combination of senior civil and military officials who had ruled Pakistan since April 1953. Yahya Khan believed, unlike Ayub Khan, that the military ought to seize direct administrative power and sideline the unpopular CSP. The result was that all decision-making power was concentrated in the CMLA Secretariat headed by a lieutenant-general aided by two brigadiers, with junior officers appointed to co-ordinate directly with ministries. A purge of some 300 civil servants was carried out and these moves ensured that the regime was freed from professional administrative interference (but also expertise).

Yahya Khan moved to undo the political legacy of the governing corporation through measures designed to win him popularity. The 'One Unit' structure in West Pakistan was phased out and although not all the pre-1955 units were restored, the four major provinces of Punjab, Sindh, the North-West Frontier Province (NWFP until 2010, now known as Khyber Pakhtunkhwa), and Balochistan, assumed their present form. Yahya Khan also did away with inter-wing representative parity and announced fresh elections for December 1970 on the basis of universal adult franchise. Rather than keeping the 1962 Constitution, or reverting to the 1956 Constitution, Yahya Khan decided to have the new assembly act as a Constituent Assembly and draft another constitution. The system of Basic Democracy was discontinued, and under the revised allocation of National Assembly seats, East Pakistan would get 169 seats and West Pakistan 144, with 300 contested seats, and the remaining 13 seats reserved for women. Yahya Khan also conceded in his Legal Framework Order (LFO) that a simple majority would be required to approve constitutional provisions, rather than the traditional practice of two-thirds.

Going into the elections, Yahya Khan was convinced that the result would lead to a badly fractured assembly unable to take decisions and approve a new constitution within the 120 days stipulated in the LFO. This outcome would give Yahya Khan and his generals three options. First, a divided parliament would allow the regime to cobble together a coalition of the willing to formulate a constitution to its liking. Second, if the first outcome did not materialize, then Yahya Khan could dissolve the assembly and call fresh elections after an unspecified interval. And third, martial law could be rigorously applied at any time and the political process upended. Yahya Khan, in other words, had no intention of handing over power and was convinced that a political situation comparable to the mid-1950s would play out, eventually leaving him in a position of control. This kind of thinking meant that the regime did not take even elementary military precautions to stave off popular reaction to its machinations. It remained supremely confident and even allowed genuinely open and free campaigning to take place, believing that the outcome was inevitably going to go its way.

The actual results went completely against the regime's projections. The Awami League concentrated its resources in East Pakistan and turned the campaign into a referendum on the Six Point plan. The PPP concentrated its strength in West Pakistan and turned the campaign into a referendum on the perceived inequities of the Ayub Khan era, promising in its place Islamic Socialism with bread, clothing and shelter for all. These were the first national elections to be held in Pakistan on the basis of universal adult franchise, and turnout was 63%. The Awami League got nearly 40% of the popular vote and swept East Pakistan, winning 160 seats, while in West Pakistan the PPP secured 19% of the popular vote and got 81 seats. The regime had not contemplated a political outcome that was decisive in both wings. Rather than the range of options he had fantasized about prior to the elections, Yahya Khan now effectively had two equally stark choices. One was to convene the National Assembly, allow the Awami League to form a government, and, as it commanded a simple majority, approve a constitution consistent with the Six Point programme. The other was to renege on the regime's commitments and plunge Pakistan into civil war.

Unwilling to hand power to the Awami League, fearing India's intelligence penetration of East Pakistan, and egged

on by hawkish West Pakistani politicians like Zulfikar Ali Bhutto, who saw no point in joining an assembly where the PPP could play no effective role, Yahya Khan opted to delay the convening of the new parliament and impose preconditions. As it became clear that the regime was not going to keep its promises, the Awami League's position hardened and it prepared to seize control of the East Pakistan Government through a popular revolt. Rather than defusing the situation or trying to buy time, Yahya Khan ordered a military crackdown in East Pakistan on 25 March 1971.

The decision to launch a crackdown was in some ways an arbitrary one taken without serious professional consideration of the consequences. It belied Yahya Khan's claim to being a competent military officer. The East Pakistan Rifles, a paramilitary formation recruited locally, rebelled and murdered all 700 of its West Pakistani non-commissioned officers. This meant that there were barely 10,000 loyal troops left in East Pakistan by 28 March 1971. Nobody at military general headquarters had worked out a proper plan for keeping control of East Pakistan or otherwise defending it. The old shibboleth that the defence of the East lay in the West had, in spite of being demonstrated as false in 1965, remained the strategic and operational doctrine. It was only after the military crackdown had begun that orders were given for two divisions (35,000 soldiers) to be airlifted to Dhaka. The airlift was conducted via Sri Lanka and in civilian aircraft. Consequently, the forces deployed had to leave behind their heavy equipment. With barely 45,000 lightly armed soldiers to control a seething population of over 60 million, the military situation in East Pakistan was hopeless. The military, now reinforced, managed to restore order in the major cities by May 1971, but control of the countryside was fragile and with the Awami League waging an India-backed insurgency, a political solution was the only way out. By this time the Pakistani leadership was also convinced that an Indian invasion was imminent and that India would seize territory in East Pakistan and declare an independent Bangladesh. This thinking meant that Lt-Gen. A. A. K. Niazi, Pakistan's commander in the eastern theatre, had developed a militarily unorthodox plan of holding territory through static defences. There was, in fact, no independent defence capability in East Pakistan and this assessment of Indian plans would prove wrong. Rather than attempting to quickly seize some territory, the Indian leadership, well advised by its military, decided to wait and carry out a well-prepared circumvention that would target Dhaka. Meanwhile, the refugee crisis generated international outrage and served to isolate Pakistan. The conclusion of an Indo-Soviet treaty of friendship in August 1971 further upped the ante. India finally struck in mid-November by probing Pakistan's defences in the East. Pakistani commanders requested permission to fall back but were ordered to hold territory. This was the beginning of an Indian offensive that would erupt into open warfare in both wings on 4 December. Niazi's plans fell apart within days and by 12 December Indian weapons fire could be heard in Dhaka. Intriguingly, Niazi had about 30,000 men under his command in Dhaka and besieging the city would not be an easy prospect. Rather than fighting it out, Niazi decided to surrender. On 16 December Niazi signed the surrender document: 45,000 Pakistan armed forces personnel and 48,000 Pakistani civilians became prisoners of war (PoW), the fate of pro-Pakistani elements in what was now Bangladesh was sealed, and Jinnah's Pakistan as it had been created at Partition ceased to exist. Yahya Khan had presided over the liquidation of the governing corporation, the Ayub Khan regime, the 1962 Constitution, the 'One Unit' model, and the very territorial integrity of Pakistan. And yet, even after all this, Yahya Khan was unwilling to part with power until the threat of mutiny by junior officers openly outraged by what had transpired on the military's watch forced him to step down. India had, for its part, succeeded in using military force to bring about a change in the United Nations (UN)-recognized boundaries of another state and, in so doing, 'cut Pakistan down to size'.

Despite its role in bringing about one of the greatest military and political catastrophes in the history of Muslims in South Asia, there was one matter where the Yahya Khan regime played a constructive role. This was the facilitation of an opening between the USA and communist China, which began

as a result of Henry Kissinger's secret visit to the Chinese capital, Beijing, via Pakistan in July 1971, as the National Security Adviser to US President Richard Nixon. This would set the stage for Nixon's official visit to China in February 1972—the 'week that changed the world' in a very substantive sense. Pakistan's role in this opening was the major factor behind Nixon's tilt towards Pakistan during the East Pakistan crisis. Using its influence to help bring about the normalization of relations between the world's most powerful (the USA) and most populous (China) nations has stood Pakistan in good stead. For while the US approach to relations with Pakistan remained mercurial and transactional, the Chinese resolved to retain and deepen their connection to Pakistan at every level. As Chinese Premier Zhou Enlai remarked to Kissinger with regard to Pakistan: 'One does not break a bridge after crossing it.'

THE FIRST PPP GOVERNMENT, DECEMBER 1971–JULY 1977

Table 3: Pakistan Presidents (Heads of State) since 1973, excluding temporary appointments

Fazal Ilahi Chaudhry	14 Aug. 1973–16 Sept. 1978
Muhammad Zia-ul-Haq	16 Sept. 1978–17 Aug. 1988
Ghulam Ishaq Khan	17 Aug. 1988–18 July 1993
Farooq Leghari	14 Nov. 1993–2 Dec. 1997
Muhammad Rafiq Tarar	1 Jan. 1998–20 June 2001
Pervez Musharraf	20 June 2001–8 Aug. 2008
Asif Ali Zardari	9 Sept. 2008–8 Sept. 2013
Mamnoon Hussain	9 Sept. 2013–

With the secession of East Pakistan and Yahya Khan's ouster, Zulfikar Ali Bhutto and the PPP assumed control of the government. The new Government would first exercise authority as an interim martial law administration from 20 December 1971 to 14 August 1973 and after that time as a constitutional parliamentary government until 5 July 1977. Bhutto would serve as President and CMLA during the first phase and Prime Minister during the second.

On the external front the new Government had to immediately address ending hostilities with India, secure the repatriation of 93,000 Pakistani PoWs, and work towards normalization of relations with Bangladesh. Bhutto clearly understood that Pakistan's attempt to create and maintain a balance of power in South Asia through conventional means had failed. Rather than accept India's hegemony, however, Bhutto was determined to buy time through diplomacy while embarking upon a nuclear weapons programme—Pakistan vowed to succeed on this front even it had to endure hardships to achieve its goal.

To the new Government's credit it successfully negotiated the Simla Agreement with India (July 1972), which was sufficiently vague and allowed both states to claim that their view of the Kashmir dispute had been endorsed. By August 1973, Pakistan had successfully negotiated for the return of its PoWs from India and shielded those accused by Bangladesh of war crimes, with the transfer completed by July 1974. Meanwhile, at the Organization of Islamic Conference summit in Lahore in February 1974 Mujibur Rahman was invited to attend, and Pakistan formally recognized Bangladesh. Bhutto would also take steps to deepen Pakistan's relationship with China, especially in terms of military co-operation and infrastructure development. A major project that had been initiated under the Ayub Khan regime, the 1,300 km-long National Highway 35, popularly known as the Karakorum Highway, underwent rapid development during the PPP administration, although it was not completed until 1979. This provided China and Pakistan with a direct overland link. The deepening of relations with China contrasted with the difficult relationship with the USA, especially after the Indian nuclear test of 1974 created concerns that Pakistan would follow suit. Since the passage of the 1976 Symington amendment to the US Foreign Assistance Act of 1961, Pakistan had to face increased pressure regarding its nuclear programme.

Internally, the new Government embarked upon a programme of consolidating power and reducing or co-opting potential sources of opposition. The civil service, the industrial

and business classes, and the military, were the key elements from which the PPP perceived a serious threat. The plan was to cut down the pillars of the old regime and to bind the state apparatus, the economy and the military, to a political patronage complex centred on the ruling party. By doing so, Bhutto hoped to overwhelm any serious opposition to his rule and stay in power indefinitely, with periodic elections to sanctify this continuity in power. Given the arbitrariness that this approach would entail, Bhutto decided to use his powers as CMLA to strike the first blows against what he believed to be the actual or potential enemies of his Government.

The purge of the civilian apparatus began in December 1971 and in its first week the chairmen of the Pakistan Industrial Development Corporation, and National Press Trust, the managing directors of the National Shipping Group and Progressive Papers, and the senior editor of Pakistan Times were all sacked. All the dismissals were carried out under martial law orders. Bhutto then directed Vagor Ahmed, the Secretary to the Cabinet, to prepare names of civil servants for dismissal or demotion en masse under Martial Law Regulation 114. When Ahmed tried to pressure the heads of administrative departments to submit names, a mere 27 names were yielded. The Special Police Establishment yielded 88 names. The finance minister submitted 106 names, and Ahmed added 245 names on his own initiative. Senior PPP leaders were also asked to add names to the list and on 12 March 1972 some 2,000 officials learnt from the evening broadcast that they had been dismissed or demoted. On 18 March some 500 provincial services officers met the same fate. Then on 18 April a total of 24 judges were removed, while two days later eight officers of the Intelligence Bureau were dismissed. These purges were followed by the Lateral Entry Scheme, through which the political leadership could make direct appointments, circumventing the normal competitive recruitment procedures. At the officer and senior subordinate levels, 5,476 such inductions were made, with some 2,800 in federal institutions and the rest at the provincial level. These purges and political inductions were designed to reduce the autonomy and prestige of the civilian bureaucracy, while the 1973 Civil Service Act and Public Service Commissions Act gutted the statutory autonomy and rigour of the services.

The business and industrial classes also felt Bhutto's ire. The new Government adopted a confiscatory policy of nationalization and Pakistan's banking, shipping, insurance, large-scale manufacturing, while missionary schools were brought under state ownership. By the mid-1970s even small and medium-sized enterprises faced nationalization, private investment declined dramatically, and the newly nationalized entities as well as older state corporations were soon too bloated with political appointees to perform efficiently. As the state sector was turned into the major source of employment generation, deficits soared and by 1977 revenues stood at about half of expenditures, with fiscal deficits as a proportion of GDP in the double-digits. The gaps were made good through printing currency and borrowing, which fuelled inflation that hurt the poorest Pakistanis the most. The poorest quintile saw its share of the national wealth fall back to 6%, the pre-Ayub Khan level, while Pakistan's industrial revolution stalled, never to be effectively revived, and a permanent crisis of productivity and competitiveness now permeated the entire economy. Somewhat ironically for a government that claimed socialism to be its economic policy, the five-year planning process was abandoned and replaced by an ad hoc one-year planning approach.

The Government's approach towards the military was different from the outright aggression demonstrated towards the civil service and businessmen. The first tack of the strategy was to buy the military's support by increasing its funding, giving it a share of nationalized industries, grants of land, and privileges. The second tack was to create a new paramilitary Praetorian guard, called the Federal Security Force (FSF) that would be personally loyal to Bhutto and deter coup attempts. By late 1976, the FSF had 18,500 men under arms, 750 vehicles, its own radio wireless network, and heavy weapons; tanks had been purchased for it but their entry into service was delayed due to high operating costs. On the patronage side of the equation, the Government would employ 3,000 former military men in the FSF and also use the

nationalized banks and industries as parking places for surplus military officers. The military budget rose from Rs 3,000m, in 1972 to Rs 8,000m. by 1976 and schemes to provide land to military personnel were expanded. The military's welfare foundations flourished under the patronage economy established by the PPP. The army's Fauji Foundation, for instance, saw its assets grow from Rs 152m. in 1970 to more than Rs 2,000m. rupees by 1982, with 29 major industrial projects under its control. The Government's deployment of the military in Balochistan to crush opposition in 1973 would also set the stage for its rehabilitation as a fighting force in the eyes of the public, rapidly replenishing its political capital from the low point of December 1971.

Bhutto's undermining of civilian administrative and economic capacity and strengthening of the military was accompanied by measures that made the adoption of a new constitution in 1973 almost meaningless. The military regime-era Defence of Pakistan Rules remained in effect, the code of Criminal Procedure was amended to allow for direct registration of cases without preliminary examination by a magistrate, citizens lost legal protection against mala fide arrest in April 1974, and strenuous efforts were made to buy the support of the legal fraternity through grants of plots of land. The use of religion as an instrument of shoring up political support led to the establishment of a federal ministry for religious affairs, the declaration of Ahmedis as non-Muslim by constitutional amendment (1974), and, as the Government faced mounting opposition, prohibitions on alcohol, gambling and horse racing were also introduced.

The inability of the Government to adhere to any consistent principle beyond a tactical need for self-aggrandizement paved the way for its downfall. Two developments were critical in this respect. One was that in 1976, the army chief, Gen. Tikka Khan, was due to retire and Bhutto wanted to replace him with a pliant and politically reliable officer. In March of that year Bhutto decided to appoint Lt-Gen. Zia-ul-Haq as Tikka Khan's successor. This meant that Zia superseded six more senior lieutenant-generals. The second critical development was the conduct of the next general elections. These were scheduled for March 1977 and, in October 1976 a clear message was sent to the civilian bureaucracy through the purge of 170 officers. What was expected was blind loyalty to the Government and another purge was planned for immediately after the elections. The opposition parties formed the Pakistan National Alliance (PNA) to contest the elections. Nobody seriously expected the PNA to win the elections and the PPP had no cause for concern that it would lose its majority. The polling day and post-poll rigging that took place, much of it by terrified civil administrators, produced a result where the PPP won 155 seats and the combined opposition only 36 seats in a reduced 216-member national assembly. This resulted in mass agitation against the Government, with the authorities resorting to repression as well as offers of negotiation to defuse the challenge. In April 1977 the Government imposed martial law in Karachi and Lahore and the political crisis deepened. Calls for the army to intervene grew and while Zia was a relatively reluctant coup-maker, the growing consensus among his colleagues convinced him to strike. In July the military staged a coup, codenamed Operation Fair Play, which toppled the Government, and installed Zia as the CMLA. Zia promised fresh elections in 90 days. These 90 days would turn into 11 years and end only with Zia's death in an unexplained air crash in August 1988.

THE ZIA-UL-HAQ MILITARY REGIME, 1977-88

The Zia regime represents the longest spell of military rule in Pakistan's history. It left an enduring legacy in terms of Islamization and firmly set Pakistan on the path of growing religious extremism and internal violence. Having come to power promising free and fair elections, Zia reneged on his pledge in October 1977, and placed Bhutto on trial for conspiracy to commit murder. Found guilty by a split 4-3 verdict in the Supreme Court of Pakistan, Bhutto was executed in April 1979. During the trial Zia formally assumed the presidency and in October he banned political parties, applied martial law with renewed rigour, and placed elections permanently on hold. Zia realized that his best chance of acquiring legitimacy

was through accelerating the process of Islamization begun by Bhutto. Zia thus introduced Islamic penal provisions via the Hudud Ordinance (1979), decreed the creation of a Federal Shariat Court (1980), expanded the role of the Council of Islamic Ideology, ordered state collection of Islamic alms deduction (*zakat*), and directed banks to introduce interest-free *shari'a*-compliant practices.

Zia's Islamization coincided with the Soviet invasion of Afghanistan (December 1979). This transformed Zia from an international pariah to the leader of a frontline state in the Cold War. Zia deftly exploited the resulting leverage by initially dismissing an offer of US \$400m. in aid from the Administration of US President Jimmy Carter as 'peanuts', and securing, in 1981, a much better deal from the newly installed Ronald Reagan administration. This entailed a US commitment of over \$7,000m. in military and economic aid over the next decade. Critically, US acquiescence in the face of Pakistani efforts to develop nuclear weapons capability meant that by the mid-1980s Pakistan had acquired enough of a capability for a recessed (or non-weaponized) deterrent *vis-à-vis* India. The 1985 Pressler Amendment, designed to hamper US aid to Pakistan, was effectively brushed aside by the US Executive Branch, pending settlement of the war in Afghanistan. There Zia sought to prolong the Soviet intervention, something Pakistan could do as the primary channel through which US and allied assistance reached the anti-communist armed opposition (*mujahideen*). The costs to Pakistan of the war in its neighbourhood were none the less considerable. Hosting three million Afghan refugees, the rapid spread of heroin addiction owing to the drugs trade that accompanied the insurgency, the growth of religious extremist networks, violent sectarian conflicts, and the flooding of the country with millions of small arms, were just some of the more pernicious consequences.

Zia's ability to prolong his rule was also due to the patronage left at his disposal by the PPP Government. Nationalization had left the regime in control of tens of thousands of industrial and commercial units. Selective privatization of these assets allowed Zia to bind the business community, agricultural entrepreneurs, and industrialists, to his will and legacy. The rise of the Sharif family was a significant example of this process, while the accumulation of vast fortunes from the Afghan war greatly augmented the economic profile of an entire generation of senior military officers. By some estimates, some US \$80,000m. worth of land would be converted into real estate by the military during the Zia regime. The militarization of the economy, the Islamization of society, and the nuclearization of Pakistan, remain key drivers of Pakistan's history to the present day.

On the political front, Zia enjoyed the support of the religious right and anti-PPP businessmen, farmers and industrialists. In order to introduce a measure of representation, Zia introduced elected Local Bodies that operated on a non-party basis. In 1984 Zia decided to hold a national referendum that asked citizens to vote for or against 'the preservation of the Islamic ideology of Pakistan' and the process of Islamization. A 'Yes' vote would translate into another five years for Zia. Although actual turnout was perhaps less than 10%, the regime claimed 62% turnout with 97.7% votes in favour of his proposal. This gave Zia a mandate to amend the 1973 Constitution via the Eighth Amendment, hold non-party elections for national and provincial assemblies, and appoint a Prime Minister (Muhammad Khan Junejo). Premier Junejo, Zia expected, would be little more than a cipher. Instead, Junejo used the spectre of a PPP revival under Zulfikar Ali Bhutto's daughter, Benazir Bhutto, to pressurize Zia into concessions. In December 1985 martial law was lifted, along with the ban on political parties. Junejo also incensed Zia by lobbying for ending the war in Afghanistan as soon as possible. The rupture over the Geneva process caused Zia to dismiss Junejo under Article 58 2(B) of the amended constitution in May 1988. Zia appeared isolated and was embittered by what he saw was growing US-Soviet collusion as the Cold War wound down. With the PPP regaining popularity, Zia's political options were narrowing when his plane went down in an as yet unexplained crash near Bahawalpur, in Punjab in August. Zia's death paved the way for the former civil servant Ghulam Ishaq Khan, then Chairman of the

Senate, to succeed to the presidency. The new President ordered fresh national and provincial elections for November, with political parties allowed to contest the polls. Muhammad Nawaz Sharif, leading the Pakistan Muslim League (PML) as part of the Islamic Democratic Alliance, represented Zia's legacy, while Benazir Bhutto led the PPP. Unknown at the time to these rival scions, a decade of instability lay ahead that would end in a return to military rule.

EXPERIMENTS WITH DEMOCRACY, 1988–99

The 11 years from November 1988 to October 1999 saw four general elections in which the PML and PPP competed against each other directly and as the heads of rival alliances. In 1990 and 1996 the President dismissed elected governments by exercising authority under Article 58 2(B) of the Zia-modified Constitution. In 1993 the President attempted to dismiss the PML Government but was halted by the Supreme Court, only to have the army chief, Gen. Waheed Kakar, intervene and force both President and Prime Minister to resign. The Government elected in February 1997 would be overthrown in a military coup in October 1999, which brought the then army chief, Gen. Pervez Musharraf, to power. The election outcomes for this period at the national level, exclusive of nominated seats, are provided in the table below:

Table 4: National Assembly seats at elections (of a total of 207), 1988–99

	16 Nov. 1988	24 Oct. 1990	6 Oct. 1993	3 Feb. 1997
PML	56	106	73	137
PPP	94	44	89	18
Voter turnout	44%	46%	40%	36%

Neither party would complete its regular tenure and both sought to do everything possible to derail the other's government. Accusations of corruption, maladministration and nepotism were thrown at each other by each side, and over 8,000 cases of alleged corruption would be registered during this period, including more than 180 against Benazir Bhutto's husband, Asif Ali Zardari. The muck-raking had the effect of alienating the majority of people from the political process, leading to low voter turnout and growing apathy towards the fate of democracy. The dynastic structure of the PML, which was dominated by the Sharif family, and the PPP, dominated by the Bhutto family, prevented both parties from functioning along modern lines. The impression was that Pakistan politics had degenerated into struggle for patronage and plunder between two rival fiefdoms.

Democratically elected governments also had to face two major constraints. One was that the military controlled foreign policy, defence, had the most powerful intelligence arm, and exercised a veto on financial allocations. The other was that US military aid to Pakistan was terminated in 1990, while civilian aid evaporated after 1993, on account of the Pakistani nuclear weapons programme. Reduced aid inflows, instability in the Middle East, growing international isolation, and political uncertainty, meant that Pakistan had to repeatedly turn to the International Monetary Fund (IMF) and borrowed to keep its economy afloat. External debt soared from US \$12,000m. in 1988 to nearly \$40,000m. by 1999. With annual GDP growth falling below 3% by 1997, the prospect of default loomed.

The West had calculated that hurting Pakistan economically would slow down its nuclear programme, while cutting off arms exports to Pakistan would hurt the military and make it more amenable to coming into the Non-Proliferation Treaty/Comprehensive Test Ban Treaty fold. In fact, the sanctions and isolation had precisely the opposite effect. Perceiving the West to be an unreliable and transactional partner, Pakistani civilian and military élites agreed on the need to proceed with the nuclear programme as the only reliable guarantee of national security and survival. By depriving the Pakistani military of advanced US equipment, the conventional arms balance increasingly favoured India, which, in turn, made nuclear weapons even more necessary for Pakistan. The failure of the West's approach towards Pakistan became evident in May 1998 when India conducted five nuclear tests. Pakistan lost little time in using this opportunity to impose strategic

parity on India, and, at the end of the same month conducted six nuclear tests, both thereby becoming declared nuclear weapons states. The additional sanctions imposed on Pakistan meant little to the Government, which responded by freezing its foreign currency account (worth US \$11,600m.) and imposing an artificial exchange rate.

An important characteristic of the 1988–99 period was that the Prime Minister was considered the junior partner in a troika that included the army chief and the President. Of the three the army chief was, should he choose to assert himself, the most powerful. President Ghulam Ishaq Khan learned this when after attempting and failing to dismiss the PML Government in 1993, he and Prime Minister Nawaz Sharif were both shown the door by the military. Premature dismissals, however, had one benefit for the PML and PPP, as both framed a narrative that blamed their failures in government on the inability to complete tenures.

The second PML Government, on account of its two-thirds majority in the National Assembly, sought to end the troika and establish the Prime Minister as the supreme executive authority. The 'heavy mandate' enabled the PML to repeal Article 58 2(B) of the Eighth Amendment, forcing out the incumbent President and replacing him with a family retainer of the Sharifs (Rafique Ahmed Tarar). The Supreme Court would be cut down to size through a combination of legal and mob tactics that saw the Court's premises overrun by PML supporters. The Government cracked down on critical news media and publications, and held the opposition to an extreme form of accountability and scrutiny, overseen by Senator Saifur Rehman. The Prime Minister was fortunate in that the army chief, Gen. Jehangir Karamat, was disinclined to interfere in the operations of government. Having succeeded Gen. Waheed Kakar in January 1996, Karamat focused on the military's internal matters. This good fortune ended in October 1998, when Gen. Karamat, lecturing at the Naval War College, stated that it would be beneficial for Pakistan if there were a National Security Council, where the military command and political leadership could formally discuss defence issues. The Prime Minister's displeasure with these remarks became known and Karamat tendered his resignation. Not content with having a neutral and professional army chief, Nawaz Sharif decided that this was the opportune moment to make a patronage appointment and bring the military into line.

Nawaz Sharif decided to appoint Gen. Pervez Musharraf to succeed Karamat. Musharraf, to the Prime Minister's thinking, would make a suitable replacement, as he came from a family of Urdu-speaking migrants and so lacked a natural constituency in the Pakistani military, in which the majority of the officers and soldiers were from Punjab or the NWFP. Musharraf would thus make a weak army chief, one beholden to the Prime Minister for his appointment. In thinking along these lines, Nawaz Sharif misunderstood the professional coherence of the Pakistani military and the adherence of the armed services to the unity of command. It was a decision that the Prime Minister soon regretted as Gen. Musharraf proved to be an aggressive commander with little regard for the civilian leadership. While the Prime Minister was trying to improve relations with India, going so far as to offer to sell it electricity and hosting his Indian counterpart for the Lahore Summit of February 1999, the new army chief was preparing an audacious military operation in Kashmir.

Since 1989 Indian-administered Kashmir had been in revolt against rule from New Delhi. Military and paramilitary responses by the Indian Government had radicalized parts of the local Muslim population amid reports of brutal treatment at the hands of Indian soldiers, and created insurgency conditions. India accused Pakistan of fomenting discord and terrorism, while Pakistan accused India of state terrorism and violating the Kashmiri's right to self-determination enshrined in UN Security Council resolutions that India had triggered by complaining to the UN in January 1948. The killing of tens of thousands of Kashmiris since 1989 notwithstanding, the world had, in Pakistani eyes at least, ignored Indian repression. Pakistan could not overtly come to the military aid of the Kashmiris as that would likely trigger Indian retaliation across the international border, as had happened in 1965. But after the nuclear tests of May 1998, a new idea started to

gain traction in the Pakistani military. If Pakistan were to launch a limited military operation in Kashmir after carrying out nuclear tests, India, it was hypothesized, would be unable to attack across the international boundary for fear of triggering Pakistan's use of its nuclear deterrent. This would force India to fight a limited war at a time and place of Pakistan's choosing, blunting the conventional imbalance that worked in India's favour. The limited military conflict would also internationalize the Kashmir dispute and possibly lead to third-party mediation to break the deadlock. It was this line of thinking that led to the Kargil War of mid-1999, in which Pakistan seized the high ground in the Kargil sector of Indian-administered Kashmir, and fought a fierce if limited war as India sought to recover territory.

Things did not go as Pakistan's military planners had expected. Pakistan was quickly perceived as the aggressor in the conflict. India was able to paint Pakistan as an irresponsible nuclear weapons state, attempting to use the atomic threat to alter territorial control at the expense of another nuclear weapons state. Caught by surprise, and profoundly embarrassed, given recent peace overtures, India had no choice but to order India's military to fight until all the heights seized by Pakistan were returned to Indian control. As the fighting raged and casualties mounted on both sides, international pressure focused on Pakistan and sought to compel it to disengage. Moreover, by the end of June 1999 it was becoming evident that Pakistan would not be able to hold on to its positions in the Kargil sector through the summer. Premier Nawaz Sharif was in an impossible position. If he claimed that the operation was carried out by his handpicked and only recently appointed army chief without his foreknowledge and approval, the Government would come across as hopelessly weak. If, on the other hand, the Prime Minister owned the operation, his peace overtures to India and the Lahore Summit would constitute a level of duplicity unusual even by India-Pakistan standards. On 4 July US President Bill Clinton hosted Nawaz Sharif as part of efforts to broker a cessation of hostilities. These efforts had become more frantic as fears of escalation into nuclear war grew. In exchange for the US agreeing to take an interest in the process initiated in Lahore earlier that year, Pakistan agreed to withdraw its forces to the Line of Control (LoC), which separated Pakistan-controlled Kashmir from the Indian-administered part. By this time more than a thousand Indian and Pakistani soldiers had lost their lives since the outbreak of the Kargil violence, with twice that number wounded, and the risk of either military overreacting out of frustration was all too real.

The 4 July 1999 agreement had immense domestic fallout in Pakistan. Relations between Nawaz and Musharraf deteriorated. The Prime Minister wanted to replace the army chief as soon as possible and was working out a plan whereby such a move might be carried out. Gen. Musharraf, for his part, was aware of what was going on in the Prime Minister's camp and was preparing for a 'counter' coup as soon as the Government tried to remove him from his position. When, on 12 October, Nawaz Sharif took advantage of the army chief's visit to Sri Lanka to dismiss him while his plane was on the way back to Karachi, the military swiftly and bloodlessly seized control of key government installations. Musharraf's plane was allowed to land and by midnight the Prime Minister was in army custody. Pakistan's fourth spell of military rule had begun.

THE MUSHARRAF MILITARY REGIME, 1999–2008

The new regime established by Gen. Musharraf would embark upon the first serious attempt at modernization since the end of the Ayub Khan era. It would also try to normalize relations with India, and come close to reaching an agreement by March 2007. Pakistan's enlistment in the US-led military action that followed the 11 September 2001 attacks on the World Trade Center and the Pentagon in the USA, would end the country's diplomatic isolation, while also forcing a violent reckoning with religious militants that rages to the present day. Musharraf's liberalization of the media, allocation of expanded reservation of seats for women in representative bodies (33% in local government, and 60 seats in the National Assembly), amendment to the *Hudud* Laws introduced by Zia, attempts to modify

the Blasphemy Law to render it less liable to abuse, opening of the economy, and Pakistan's telecoms revolution, all stand out as major achievements, as do reforms in higher education and governance.

As with earlier military rulers, Musharraf's first priority was consolidation of power and gaining a semblance of constitutional legitimacy. Leaving the incumbent President Rafiq Tarar in place, Musharraf proclaimed himself the Chief Executive. A state of emergency was proclaimed and all legislative assemblies dissolved. A Provisional Constitutional Order granted formal cover to these steps. At the same time, Musharraf decided against declaring martial law and making himself CMLA. No restrictions were imposed on the media and the press enjoyed unprecedented freedom. Exploiting public perceptions of corruption on the part of politicians, Musharraf created the National Accountability Bureau and began a well-publicized campaign of going after alleged robber barons. Nawaz Sharif was convicted on terrorism charges for attempted hijacking of the Karachi-bound flight that was temporarily prevented from landing on 12 October 1999. The former premier was also found guilty of corruption. Saudi Arabia interceded on Nawaz Sharif's behalf and Musharraf was persuaded to allow his former boss to leave Pakistan, and Saudi Arabia duly guaranteed that Nawaz Sharif would not enter public life in Pakistan for at least 10 years. Sharif's exile began in December 2000, although he quickly backtracked on his promise not to get involved in politics by joining Benazir Bhutto in the Alliance for the Restoration of Democracy, formed shortly after Musharraf's coup. By this time, however, the PML and PPP were in disarray and the Supreme Court had granted legal cover to Musharraf's coup, citing the doctrine of necessity first used in 1955.

A core component of Musharraf's agenda was reform of the governance and administrative structure. In order to work out proposals a National Reconstruction Bureau (NRB) was established. Working with international donors and civil society, the NRB came up with the Devolution Plan. The objective of the plan was to enable the army to hold sway directly over the local administration, and reduce the power of the civil service élite. This was to be accomplished by creating elected local governments with indirectly elected chairpersons or mayors (*nazims*). Ayub Khan and Zia-ul-Haq had introduced local government schemes, but where Musharraf differed was that he placed the local administration under the indirectly elected nazims, phased out the executive magistracy, and introduced a new Police Order (2002) that made the police independent of the civil service. Through a federal ministry for local government, the centre directly controlled financial transfers to the new representative bodies ('grassroots democracy'). The local bodies could thus be managed by the centre, circumventing the provincial tier and allowing for greater administrative centralization. Musharraf also approved a massive pay increase for the judiciary and a significant hike for academics.

At the beginning of his rule, Musharraf relied upon a technocratic cabinet, which took a number of important initiatives. Funds were secured from the IMF, a comprehensive programme of liberalization in the media and telecom sectors was initiated, the banking system was opened up to foreign competition, consumer finance emerged in Pakistan, massive investments in the higher education sector under a long-term expansion plan were made or committed, an effort was made to amend the Blasphemy Law, and Musharraf publicly berated religious conservatives for their role in damaging Pakistan's international image. Musharraf also made determined overtures to India. As the architect of the Kargil Operation, Musharraf's anti-India credentials were impeccable. And, as the army chief of Pakistan he had exercised a veto over earlier normalization efforts. By the same token, if he were to take steps towards normalization it would be difficult for the military to go against him. One hitch that needed to be addressed was Musharraf's status as head of state or head of government. Musharraf decided to resolve the confusion by ousting the President in what amounted to a second coup. Musharraf also committed to holding fresh elections in October 2002. While the India-Pakistan Agra Summit (July 2001) did not result in a joint declaration, due in part to Musharraf unnecessarily upstaging his hosts during a breakfast meeting

with Indian newspaper editors, the overture and the meeting were indicative of the approach the new Pakistani leader would bring to normalization efforts.

The real turnaround for the Musharraf regime began after the terrorist attacks on the USA in September 2001. Pakistan immediately came under intense pressure to assist the USA against the Taliban regime in Afghanistan, which had provided the Islamist group al-Qa'ida and its leader Osama bin Laden with sanctuary. The Taliban were perceived to be Pakistan's proxies in the brutal war in Afghanistan that continued to rage in relative obscurity after the Soviet withdrawal. By late 2001 the Taliban had nearly completed their conquest of Afghanistan—only a few enclaves of resistance remained and the austere Islamists cracked down hard on warlords and drugs barons with such ruthlessness that the area of territory cultivated for poppies in order to harvest opium shrank from 91,000 ha in 1999 to less than 8,000 ha by May 2001, with opium production collapsing by more than 90%. These successes were offset by the Taliban regime's Saudi-style repression of minorities and women, without, however, the oil and diplomatic flexibility that would allow the West to look the other way. Pakistan, Saudi Arabia and the United Arab Emirates, were the only three countries that recognized the Taliban regime. All pleaded with Mullah Omar, the reclusive Taliban supreme commander (Amir), to hand over bin Laden and his cohorts to the US authorities. After all, the tribal code of honour that protected asylum seekers also allowed that protection to be rescinded if the refugee in question perpetrated aggression against a third party. This Mullah Omar refused to do, and Musharraf realized that there was not enough time to work out a diplomatic solution. Thus Musharraf indicated Pakistan's willingness to support the USA in its war against the Taliban and al-Qa'ida—but for a price.

The USA, in exchange for Pakistan's co-operation, would lift all sanctions on the country. Military and economic aid would be resumed. International creditors would delay their demand for repayments, which by this time had almost pushed Pakistan into default. Pakistan's international isolation would end and a more permanent commitment would be forthcoming from the USA. Pakistani diplomats lost no time in observing that had the USA remained engaged with Afghanistan after the Soviet withdrawal, and not taken such a hard line against Pakistan, the catastrophic attacks perpetrated by al-Qa'ida could well have been averted. Practically all the Pakistani demands were met. US \$12,500m. in debt repayment was rescheduled, \$600m. of budgetary support was immediately placed at Pakistan's disposal, with additional funds for the social sector (\$150 m.) and military training (\$50m.), an increase in the textile quota (worth \$145m.), a \$1,000m. write-off of bilateral Pakistani debt owed to the USA (out of \$3,000m.), access to US Export-Import Bank credits, and by the end of September 2001, the USA had waived all sanctions on Pakistan. Japan, which had suspended all aid to Pakistan after its nuclear tests, was persuaded to resume grant assistance and transferred \$300m. as anti-terrorism support in 2001 and 2002 (loans in Japanese yen would resume in 2005). Japan and other US allies would also help Pakistan rebuild after a powerful earthquake devastated Kashmir in October 2005 and left over 70,000 dead. Donors pledged nearly \$6,000m. for the reconstruction effort. The USA also began the process of declaring Pakistan a Major non-NATO Ally (North Atlantic Treaty Organization), which was confirmed with Congressional approval in June 2004, and the USA also resumed military exports to the Musharraf regime. These steps meant that India's efforts to equate acts of terrorism perpetrated on Indian soil by forces allegedly backed by Pakistan, with acts perpetrated by al-Qa'ida and the Taliban against the USA and its allies, came to nought. Even after India mobilized its army along the border with Pakistan in retaliation for a terrorist attack on the Indian Parliament in December 2001, leading to a year-long stand-off between the two countries, Pakistan and the USA continued to move closer. Musharraf's nuclear sabre-rattling also demonstrated the futility of the Indian mobilization and the absence of operational options, short of all-out war for India.

Unlike Zia, Musharraf kept his promises regarding the holding of elections. Like Zia, Musharraf took the precaution of carrying out a referendum in April 2002 that declared him President for another five years, and, through the LFO, carried out unilateral amendments to the Constitution (29 in all). These amendments greatly strengthened the presidency at the expense of parliament and the Prime Minister, and would allow Musharraf to continue to govern the country after the elections and dissolve the assemblies if he felt the need to do so. Military pressure had by this time led the PML to fracture into a pro-Musharraf Quaid-i-Azam group (PML—Q), as opposed to the bloc that had been founded by Nawaz Sharif in 1993, the PML—Nawaz (PML—N). Intense efforts were under way to create a forward bloc within the PPP, while six major religious parties joined together in the Muttahida Majlis-i-Amal (MMA). Under the revised laws, only university graduates could contest elections, and in a house of 342 seats, 272 would be directly elected and the remainder nominated on the basis of how well each party did at the polls, in a form of proportional representation. The 2002 election was won by the PML—Q, which secured 126 of the directly elected seats. The PPP took 81 seats and the MMA 63. The PML—N won just 19. From Musharraf's perspective, the election results had, therefore, produced a manageable and fragmented Assembly. Zafarullah Khan Jamali, a PML—Q leader from Balochistan, was appointed as Prime Minister.

Musharraf had thus far managed to take major initiatives without significant resistance. His policy on terrorism, which was to co-operate with the USA in combating al-Qa'ida, preserve the existence of the Afghan Taliban, and willingness to engage with India on the 'core issue' of Kashmir, alienated hardliners within the security establishment. Musharraf was seen as too Westernized and too pro-USA, as well as too eager to negotiate with India. At the same time, as US frustration in Afghanistan mounted, and the Iraq quagmire set in after the US invasion of 2003, Pakistan was repeatedly pressurized to 'do more' against militants inhabiting the Afghanistan-Pakistan borderland. Faced with these competitive pressures, Musharraf attempted to play all sides, a strategy that reflected the complexity of the situation but was cast as duplicity by an increasingly sceptical and frustrated Western media and policy élite. Musharraf's balancing act started to come undone in December 2003. That month Musharraf survived two assassination attempts. The first involved a bomb that failed to detonate as his motorcade passed it by. The second involved two suicide attackers and killed 12 members of the President's entourage and wounded 40 others. Evidently, al-Qa'ida and its sympathizers in Pakistan were not pleased with Musharraf handing over more than 400 of their operatives to the USA, while preaching 'enlightened moderation' to his public. Musharraf responded to this situation with two major initiatives. The first was to commit Pakistan to normalization with India, even if it meant bypassing institutional opposition. The other was to send the Pakistani military into the borderlands with Afghanistan and root out the militants who had almost succeeded in killing Musharraf.

The 12th South Asian Association for Regional Co-operation Summit was due to be held in Islamabad in January 2004. Leaving aside the multilateral platitudes, Musharraf reached out directly to the Indian premier. Their meeting led to the issuance of a joint statement in which Pakistan 'reassured' India that it 'will not permit any territory under Pakistan's control to be used to support terrorism in any manner', and both agreed to commence a 'composite dialogue' from February with 'all bilateral issues' on the table. Over the next three years, India and Pakistan would come closer than ever before to agreeing to a common framework and joint mechanism for Kashmir and normalization of their bilateral relationship. While the India-Pakistan negotiations got underway, Musharraf ordered the Pakistani military into the FATA. In March the first of over a dozen Pakistani military operations would be launched. Squeezed by the Pakistani military, the militants turned their guns on Pakistani civilians, unleashing a wave of terrorist attacks that continue with greater or lesser intensity to this day. Indeed, since 2001 Pakistan has experienced over 17,500 terrorist attacks, which have killed an estimated 30,000 civilians, 7,000 security forces personnel and 30,000 militants,

created three million internal refugees, and inflicted an estimated US \$120,000m. of damage on the economy. Al-Qa'ida sympathizers in FATA coalesced into the Tehrik-e-Taliban Pakistan (the so-called Pakistani Taliban—TTP) by the end of 2007, while Islamabad experienced a siege in July of that year when students and faculty of the ultra-conservative Lal Masjid (Red Mosque) and its affiliated seminaries ran riot, tried to impose Islamic law, and threatened to overthrow the Government. The military operation to secure the Red Mosque led to at least 100 fatalities, while other crackdowns led to reprisals from Islamist militants, and by the end of 2007 Pakistan faced escalating terrorist violence. Musharraf's efforts to regulate and reform religious seminaries floundered in the face of opposition from clerics and the MMA.

As Musharraf grappled with warmaking at home and peace-making abroad, the PML—N and PPP got together and agreed to a common minimum programme called the Charter of Democracy, signed in May 2006. Under the Charter, the signatories agreed to work to restore the 1973 Constitution and end military rule in Pakistan. They also agreed to a stability pact whereby the agitation politics and appeals to extra-parliamentary forces to undermine governments would be eschewed. This move did not draw that much attention in 2006, but in March 2007 Musharraf committed the most serious mistake of his rule. Iftikhar Chaudhry, the Chief Justice of the Supreme Court, had taken to exercising the apex court's original jurisdiction and obstructing the executive on policy matters (including privatization of Pakistan Steel Mills) and internal security (such as locating missing persons and establishing the reasons for their disappearance). The issue of missing persons had gained media attention in 2006 after the Pakistani military launched an operation against the Bugti tribe in Balochistan, sparking a wider insurgency that was still under way by mid-2017. The Chief Justice was particularly vulnerable to allegations of wrongdoing, as he had apparently organized for his son to assume a senior role at the Federal Investigation Agency, as well as training at the prestigious Police Academy, apparently without the proper qualifications. Musharraf decided to render the Chief Justice 'non-functional' and placed him in protective custody. This sparked a Lawyers' Movement for the restoration of the deposed Chief Justice and months of agitation and protests into which the PML—N and PPP threw their cadres. By July 2007 the first round of this conflict was over, with Chaudhry restored to his office.

Restored in office, among the first decisions taken by Chief Justice Chaudhry was to allow Nawaz Sharif back into Pakistan in August 2007. Meanwhile, Benazir Bhutto demanded the withdrawal of corruption and criminal cases as part of a reconciliation deal that would allow her to return to Pakistan and contest the next elections against the PML—N. Having employed an anti-corruption platform for much of his time in power, Musharraf chose the path of political expediency and on 5 October approved the National Reconciliation Ordinance (NRO). Under the NRO, over 8,000 cases instituted against politicians and their bureaucratic associates were withdrawn. These included over 180 cases against Benazir Bhutto's husband, Asif Ali Zardari. The next day Musharraf was elected President by the provincial and national assemblies for another five-year term. The PPP sat in the assemblies and abstained from voting. The NRO was immediately challenged in the Supreme Court where the Chief Justice was expected to strike it down as unconstitutional. Musharraf struck first, declaring a state of emergency on 3 November, dismissing Chaudhry, dissolving the national and provincial assemblies on 15 November, and stepping down as army chief on 28 November. Musharraf was succeeded by Gen. Ashfaq Pervez Kayani, a former head of the Inter-Services Intelligence (ISI) agency. Musharraf lifted the state of emergency in December, and announced elections for February 2008.

The campaigning got off to a tragic start as, in late December 2007 Benazir Bhutto was assassinated in Rawalpindi. Riots ensued in parts of Pakistan, leaving more than 40 people dead. Benazir Bhutto's widow, Asif Ali Zardari, took over de facto control of the PPP while his and Benazir's son, Bilawal Bhutto Zardari, became the titular head. The wave of sympathy for the PPP helped propel it to first position in the 2008 general

elections, held on schedule in February, with the party taking 118 seats. The PML—N won 89 seats and the PML—Q 50 seats. The Muttahida Qaumi Movement (MQM—a predominately Karachi-based party, representing Urdu speakers) secured 25 seats and independents 30 seats.

The PPP formed a coalition Government, which briefly included the PML—N. Although the PPP was not particularly keen on removing Musharraf or restoring the deposed Chief Justice on account of his antipathy to the NRO, by August 2008 the two parties decided to impeach Musharraf. This led Musharraf to resign and Zardari was elected President in September.

PAKISTAN SINCE 2008

Table 5: Prime Ministers of Pakistan since 1973, excluding interim appointees

Zulfiqar Ali Bhutto	14 Aug. 1973–5 July 1977
Muhammad Khan Junejo	23 March 1985–May 29, 1988
Benazir Bhutto	2 Dec. 1988–6 Aug. 1990; and 19 Oct. 1993–5 Nov. 1996
	6 Nov. 1990–18 April 1993; 26 May–18 July 1993; 17 Feb. 1997–12 Oct. 1999
	5 June 2013–28 July 2017
Nawaz Sharif	2017
Zafarullah Khan Jamali	21 Nov. 2002–26 June 2004
Chaudhry Shujaat Hussain	30 June–20 Aug. 2004
Shaukat Aziz	20 Aug. 2004–16 Nov. 2007
Yousaf Raza Gilani	25 March 2008–19 June 2012
Raja Pervaiz Ashraf	22 June 2012–25 March 2013
Shahid Khaqan Abbasi	1 Aug. 2017–

The ascent of Zardari to the presidency, with a PPP-led coalition in power at the centre, marked another transition to democracy. Many of the principal actors were the same as in the 1990s and the new Government's basic challenge was to perpetuate itself in power for the full five-year term. This would not be an easy task, as serious challenges to its authority loomed from the army, the judiciary, religious extremists, foreign powers, and other political parties. Zardari would prove the ultimate political survivor and oversee Pakistan's first democratic transition from one elected government to another.

A fundamental difference between Zardari and earlier civilian and military rulers was that he had no interest in being seen to possess constitutional authority and formal political power. Zardari initiated the process for reversing the changes introduced by Musharraf (formalized in the 17th Amendment) and granting additional autonomy to provinces. These steps would result in the 18th Amendment (2010) and would convert the President into a titular head of state with all executive power vested in the Prime Minister and provincial Chief Ministers. However, as the leader of the PPP, Zardari would order the Government to do as he wished before and after the 18th Amendment, and two premiers during this period (Yousaf Raza Gilani and Raja Pervaiz Ashraf) remained ciphers, while Zardari held the real power. The formal change would have no impact on Zardari's actual power over the PPP Government, but it made for good optics and Zardari was able to claim that he was the first leader in Pakistan's history to voluntarily reduce his own authority. In seeking the presidency, Zardari had also played a deft legal move. The Pakistani President enjoys sovereign immunity from prosecution. Admittedly, the President can be impeached, but cannot be subjected to the jurisdiction of an ordinary court of law while in office. This meant that Zardari could not be brought to trial, even if the NRO was struck down and all 180 cases against him reinstated. Conversely, the Prime Minister does not enjoy sovereign immunity and can be disqualified or prosecuted by the courts.

The most important relationship Zardari had to manage was with the military. Gen. Kayani was under considerable pressure to act against the Government, which was widely perceived to be corrupt and incompetent, but took no direct action. Kayani had a far more sophisticated understanding of politics than his gung-ho predecessor and realized that in the new media and civil society landscape, overt military rule was not practical, nor sustainable. Even when Musharraf had staged the coup of October 1999, the polling agency Gallup found that

75% of Pakistanis supported the action against the Government, but less than one-third supported direct military rule and 75% favoured an interim government of technocrats. The last 18 months of Musharraf's rule had damaged the prestige of the armed forces. Kayani, like Zardari, was also uninterested in the formal aspect of authority. Instead, Kayani was content to be the most powerful person in Pakistan, while extracting a high price for his relative neutrality towards the fate of the PPP Government, which granted him a second three-year tenure as army chief in November 2010. Kayani and Zardari would also strike the unlikely of partnerships against militancy and terrorism. Under Musharraf, the military had used a combination of force and negotiations against militants. Hundreds of pro-Government tribal and religious leaders were killed as a result of these deals, which typically left areas under militant influence or control. This approach emboldened the militants and made 2008 (6,715 killed in terrorist attacks, including 2,155 civilians), 2009 (11,704 killed, including 2,324 civilians), and 2010 (7,435 killed, including 1,796 civilians) the bloodiest years of terrorist violence in Pakistan's history. By the end of 2008 the scenic Swat valley, some 360 km north of Islamabad, had fallen to the TTP. In view of this development, the military adopted a new approach. First, there would be no negotiations, although militants were welcome to surrender and those who laid down their arms would be treated mercifully. Second, the military would now go into militant-infested areas, clear the territory, and then hold onto it by building permanent infrastructure. Third, while officially condemning US drone strikes, Pakistan and the USA would co-ordinate against high-value targets while maintaining a public profile of mutual recrimination for domestic political reasons. And fourth, at some stage the areas restored to Pakistani state control would be handed over to a rehabilitated civil administration. The first of these operations would be launched in May 2009 and successfully restore the Swat valley to government control. Despite terrible provocation, amid brutal terrorist attacks against innocent civilians, the PPP Government kept in place a moratorium on executions during its tenure, at Zardari's personal insistence.

While the Zardari-Kayani duopoly converged on the issue of militancy, there were serious differences on other issues and it suited the military to not allow the Government to get too comfortable. The first major challenge was the crisis over the restoration of deposed Chief Justice Chaudry. The PPP was not keen on having him back and dragged its feet on restoring him to office. The PPP also attempted to dislodge the PML—N Government from Punjab on account of differences on this issue. This led to a renewed threat of agitation and a possible march on Islamabad by lawyers and the PML—N. At this stage Kayani intervened and convinced the Government to restore Chaudry to his position. By August 2009 the Supreme Court had struck down the restrictions imposed on it by Musharraf and became implacable in its criticism and pursuit of the PPP Government. Central to this was that the Supreme Court wanted the National Accountability Bureau (Pakistan's anti-corruption agency—NAB) to write to the Swiss authorities to revive an investigation into a major scandal that Zardari was alleged to be involved in, regarding embezzlement of illicit funds received while Benazir Bhutto was in office, which had been directed to a secret bank account in Switzerland (although the Swiss prosecutor responded by stating that, as head of state, Zardari had immunity from prosecution in a foreign country, and referred the case to the Pakistani authorities to pursue). Another notable episode was the Raymond Davis incident of January 2011. Davis, an official working for the US Central Intelligence Agency, killed two reportedly armed Pakistani men in Lahore leading to public outcry and demands that he be brought to justice. The USA asserted that Davis enjoyed immunity from prosecution as he was working under the aegis of the US consulate in Lahore. Local officials claimed that the two men killed were from the ISI and that they were following Davis, whom they suspected of espionage. Zardari and the military appeared to have worked together to defuse the crisis by using Pakistan's traditional Islamic *qisas* and *diyat* laws, whereby victims of crimes or their heirs can forgive the accused or guilty party in exchange for material compensation from the culprit. Eventually US \$700,000 was

paid as compensation to the victims' families, and Davis was returned to the USA.

In May 2011 the killing of bin Laden in Abbottabad, Khyber Pakhtunkhwa, by US special forces, sparked a fierce row between the civilian administration and military officials. On the surface, the PPP and other parties rallied to the defence of the armed forces and the ISI. However, uncomfortable questions remained. The fact was that bin Laden was living in a large complex in Abbottabad, a small town that is home to the Pakistan Military Academy, raised serious questions about levels of connivance between local officials, and those who wished to protect the fugitive. Bin Laden's family was with him and US military officers and intelligence agents had tracked him down independently of official Pakistani assistance. The Pakistani medical doctor who had helped the US identify bin Laden's body was promptly arrested. The public perception around the world was that Pakistan's so-called 'deep state' had been caught red-handed, engaged in a profoundly deceptive 'dual' policy. Given that Pakistan had handed over more than 400 al-Qa'ida operatives during the Musharraf regime, holding on to bin Laden was confusing. The judicial commission that was formed to inquire into the matter (the Abbottabad Commission) pronounced in favour of serious incompetence at all levels of government, which, under the circumstances, was the most benign verdict possible. Tensions over the fallout of the raid to kill bin Laden would lead to the so-called Memogate controversy, which began in October 2011. A *Financial Times* article written by Mansoor Ijaz claimed that during the initial confusion after the bin Laden raid, the Pakistan ambassador to the USA (Hussain Haqqani, a political appointee) presented Adm. Mike Mullen with a note seeking US support against a military coup and help in reining in the Pakistani army. These claims led to a prolonged media circus and political crisis in which President Zardari, the PPP Government and the Pakistani ambassador to the USA were all accused of treason. In June 2012 the Supreme Court, which had formed a commission to inquire into the matter, announced its verdict and confirmed that Haqqani had indeed passed on such messages. The Government had throughout this period denied that it had issued any such instructions. Kayani, for his part, was content to let the crisis play out—the longer it continued, the weaker the civilian administration became. Eventually, the military settled for Haqqani's resignation and de facto exile to the USA, rather than pressing for a trial on charges of treason.

The Supreme Court was a constant source of tension for the PPP Government. In addition to taking pre-emptive action on a wide range of public interest matters, the issue of corruption was wielded by the Chief Justice with great persistence to keep the Government off balance. Prime Minister Gilani refused to write the letter to the Swiss authorities as the Supreme Court wished. It did not help matters that NAB had estimated the daily cost of corruption to Pakistan at approximately US \$100m. (about Rs 11,000m.), or that after devastating floods in August 2010 which killed some 2,000 people, the Government was roundly condemned for its insensitivity, incompetence and alleged dishonesty. The Supreme Court declared the Prime Minister to be in contempt of court in June 2012 and disqualified him from holding public office and he was quickly replaced by Raja Pervez Ashraf. By now the PPP had gained a plurality (41 out of 104 seats) in the Senate and was less than one year away from the next elections (scheduled for May 2013), while Zardari's term as President would end in September 2013. After some delay, Prime Minister Ashraf wrote the letter to the Swiss authorities, but ensured that there was no follow-up.

The challenge of religious extremism was one that hit the PPP particularly hard. As a centre-left party that claimed to represent a more modern vision of Pakistan, the Government took a number of important steps, such as approving legislation against workplace sexual harassment, trying to promote religious tolerance, and questioning the need for the Blasphemy Law. Zardari labelled religious extremism a 'cancer' that needed to be rooted out, and provided political cover to Kayani's increasingly uncompromising approach towards militants. This said, the assassination in January 2011 of the PPP's appointed Governor of Punjab, Salman Taseer, who was a major proponent of repeal of the Blasphemy Law

and championed the cause of Asma Bibi, a Christian woman convicted of blasphemy, was a major setback. Two things made the assassination particularly chilling for politicians. One was that Taseer was killed by one of his own police guards, who was promptly transformed into a national religious hero. The other was that the guard did not belong to the TTP, but to the mainstream Barelvi sub-sect of Sunni Islam, which has traditionally been favourable to the state and opposed to the Taliban and similar movements. In October 2012 the Taliban's assassination attempt on Malala Yousafzai, a 15-year-old activist for female education, further underscored the challenge to the Government from radicalization.

On the foreign affairs front, Zardari sought to revive the India-Pakistan normalization process initiated by Musharraf. Zardari stated that India did not pose a threat to Pakistan and sought breakthroughs on trade as well as Kashmir. Here the Government found itself assailed by a hawkish media. The military did not appear to have much interest in the matter either and viewed with growing alarm India's role in Afghanistan and its alleged support for Balochistani separatists. The activities of spoilers—non-state actors who struck at India and Pakistan—were particularly effective and prevented a serious resumption of dialogue. The Mumbai attacks of November 2008 were an especially severe test of the new Government in Islamabad, although New Delhi at least appeared to realize that the PPP had nothing to do with the terrorists who had perpetrated the attacks. Relations with the USA were often rocky, undermined by the killing of bin Laden and the NATO attacks on two Pakistani military positions (the Salala Incident) along the Pakistan-Afghanistan border, which killed 28 Pakistani soldiers in November 2011. The Salala Incident led Pakistan to impose a blockade on NATO supply routes. Given that Obama had ordered a so-called 'surge' in US forces in Afghanistan, the decision to close the supply routes was difficult to deal with. Pakistan demanded an apology from the USA and kept the supply routes closed until the US Administration finally apologized in July 2012. The USA for its part had taken to pressurizing Pakistan to 'do more' on the military front but also offered Pakistan a five-year aid package (the Kerry-Lugar Law) worth US \$1,500m. a year. The actual disbursements, however, fell far short, and were in the range of \$200m. annually, with much of that amount repatriated to the USA under various practices. The military reimbursements were just that—Pakistanis did not see Coalition Support Fund payments as aid as they only helped defray some of the expense of military operations carried out at the behest of the USA and its allies. From Pakistan's perspective the USA was insensitive to the fact that the Pakistani military had taken back territory from radical Islamists while its population had made tremendous sacrifices. The years 2011, 2012 and 2013 were the bloodiest in terms of civilians killed (2,738, 3,007 and 3,001, respectively) by terrorist attacks in Pakistan. Zardari also assiduously cultivated the Chinese—in his first year as President he visited China four times and made it clear that in strategic terms China represented 'the future of the world'.

On the internal political front, the PPP excelled at making deals. It allied with the PML—N against Musharraf and the PML—Q and in 2008 initially formed a 'grand coalition' Government of the two largest parties. Later, in 2011, the PPP, finding itself abandoned by some its allies, joined forces with the PML—Q, which it had previously accused of being party to Benazir Bhutto's assassination. The PPP also co-operated with religious fundamentalist parties and ethnic nationalist parties and was single-mindedly determined to stay in power. When, in January 2013, Tahirul Qadri, a cleric with a large educational support network and a political platform Pakistan Awami Tehreek (Pakistan's People's Movement—PAT) decided to hold a sit-in Islamabad, demanding that the constitutional provisions regarding the integrity of candidates and process be enforced, the PPP made no attempt to hinder him. Instead, it allowed him to sit (in a heated container) surrounded by his followers in the middle of Islamabad's main commercial district. After a few days, the low temperatures did the job for the PPP Government and Qadri was forced to call off his protest with only token guarantees that the relevant constitutional provisions would be enforced.

An important part of the PPP's overall strategy was power-sharing in the provinces. In Punjab, after March 2009, the PML—N enjoyed free rein. In Khyber Pakhtunkhwa, in 2010, an Awami National Party (ANP)-led Government held sway. In Balochistan a confederation of pro-Islamabad notables supported by the PPP formed the Government. While in Sindh, the PPP held power in an uncomfortable coalition with the MQM. With the exception of the erratic but energetic PML—N Government in Punjab, the ANP, PPP, MQM and assorted notables, were content to reign and plunder, leading to spiralling wastage of public funds and a collapse of public sector spending on development. Economic growth languished in the range of 2%–4%, the energy crisis that had begun in 2007 escalated to the point where major cities had electricity for no more than 12 hours a day and rural areas for 4–6 hours a day by 2012. No efforts were made towards reform or improvements of any kind in terms of the governance of the country, competitiveness and productivity continued to fall, while the PML—N appeared to be colluding with the PPP with regard to taking the national Government to task for its performance as the leader of the opposition. Indeed, the PML—N was given the chair of the Public Accounts Committee and promptly directed its fire towards old projects initiated by the Musharraf regime.

It is in this context of growing civilian governance breakdown and socioeconomic crisis that an actual opposition party began to emerge as an alternative to the PPP and PML—N. This was the Pakistan Tehreek-i-Insaf (PTI—Pakistan Movement for Justice), founded by the international cricketer-turned-philanthropist Imran Khan in 1996. Since its founding, the PTI had languished on the margins of politics but it remained disciplined in its message that was built around five key elements, foremost among them the eradication of rampant corruption; a disengagement from excessively close relations with the USA and Gulf states; and a restructuring of party politics away from the dominance of the political arena by a handful of wealthy and influential dynastic landed families.

By 2012 Imran Khan was attracting huge, enthusiastic crowds, especially in urban areas. The PTI predicted that a political tsunami would wash away the old regime if the people turned out to vote and opted for the PTI, provided that the 2013 elections were free and fair. These elections were held under the threat of terrorist attacks and an administration mired in technical and personnel problems. At the elections, which duly took place on 11 May 2013, the PML—N became the largest party, gaining 129 seats, while the PPP won just 37 seats. The PTI took 27 seats and the MQM 19 seats. An important aspect of this election, as compared to 2008, was that voter turnout increased from 44% to 55%, and indicated PTI success in mobilizing new voters. At the same time, the PTI did not have the kind of success it felt was its due, as the traditional voter base came out for the PML—N. Although the May 2013 elections marked the first democratic transition from one civilian government to another, the PML—N did not enjoy its victory for long. The PTI accused the PML—N of rigging the elections and embarked upon a relentless campaign to discredit the PML—N victory. This campaign would lead to marches and sit-ins in Islamabad (August–November 2014) in which the PTI and Qadri's PAT joined forces. The PAT also sought justice for the Model Town Massacre in Lahore in June 2014, in which 14 of its workers had been killed by the Punjab police and over 100 injured. The formation of a judicial commission ended the crisis and while it conceded that the elections had been poorly managed, it maintained that there was no positive evidence of a PML—N conspiracy to manipulate the polls. Sharif came under renewed pressure from April 2016 after the Panama Papers leaks purported to reveal that Nawaz Sharif and his family had acquired luxury apartments in London, UK through offshore companies, and that their level of wealth could not be accounted for through legitimate earnings from employment. The opposition took advantage of the suspicion that had fallen over Sharif and his party and referred the case to the Supreme Court, which initially refused to consider the matter, but eventually agreed to do so, and in July 2017 Nawaz Sharif was disqualified from office when all five judges ruled against him. Shahid Khaqan Abbasi of the PML—N, who had served as Minister of Petroleum and Natural Resources in the outgoing Cabinet, took office as

premier on 2 August, although Shahbaz Sharif, the Chief Minister of Punjab and the brother of Nawaz, was considered a likely long-term successor, pending his assumption of a seat in the National Assembly. The PTI's campaign against the PML—N had several political benefits. First, even though technically the PPP was leading the opposition in parliament, the PTI was the real opposition in the eyes of the public. Indeed, Pakistan's parliamentarians barely attended to their legislative work and beyond a few formal occasions, even the one-quarter attendance quorum routinely went unmet. Leaders from other parties, including the PPP and PML—N, defected to the PTI with enough frequency to give credence to Imran Khan's claims that his party represented the future of Pakistani politics.

While the PTI took up the mantle of opposing the Government, the PML—N sought to distinguish itself from the PPP by delivering on energy, extremism, and the economy. With an experienced economic team led by Ishaq Dar (finance) and Ahsan Iqbal (planning), the Government moved to clear the circular debt that had crippled power generation by a special adjustment in its very first budget. This had the effect of alleviating the energy shortages and gave the Government time to build additional capacity and reform the sector. While the PML—N Government did succeed in reducing power cuts and building additional capacity, by 2017 the circular debt had reached levels higher than under the PPP Government (US 5,000m., more than Rs 500,000m.) due to governance constraints. The PML—N Government also ramped up development spending, which had fallen to less than 10% of the allocated amount by 2012/13. By 2017 the utilization of development funds had reached 60% of allocations as the Government focused on fewer, more visible projects, in order to minimize transaction costs. Another major achievement was that Pakistan doubled its outlay on education to 4% of GDP (centre plus provinces) by 2017, although here, again, governance constraints meant that enrolment rates remained static and some 25m. Pakistani children did not attend school.

In terms of its relationship with the military, the PML—N had a predictably difficult time. One complication was that Musharraf had decided to return to Pakistan from self-imposed exile in the UAE in March 2013 and launch his own political party, only to be promptly arrested. Putting him on trial for carrying out a military coup would antagonize the armed services and he was eventually allowed to proceed abroad into exile again in March 2016. Gen. Kayani's retirement in November 2013 led to the appointment of Gen. Raheel Sharif (no relation to Nawaz Sharif) as his successor as army chief. As with Kayani, Sharif steered clear of overt intervention in politics and focused on the anti-militancy operations that he had inherited. During the 2014 political crisis in Islamabad, as coup rumours spread and an impression that the military wanted the PML—N out of power was being spread, the army chief met with the Prime Minister and sorely disappointed those seeking an early end to the PML—N Government. In December when TTP militants attacked the Army Public School in Peshawar and massacred over 130 students and staff, pressure on the Government to take strong action against radicalism mounted. Gen. Sharif had already launched a major military operation in North Waziristan in the previous June. The Government and opposition, after the Peshawar massacre approved a National Action Plan that created military courts to dispose of terrorism-related cases for a two-year period. The army chief built up an exceptional public profile and the military's help was sought by the Government for cracking down on violence in Karachi (which dropped by over 80% after the military became involved) to carrying out the population census (which was finally under way in mid-2017 with the assistance of 200,000 troops), which was last held in 1998. As the army chief's term of three-years drew to a close in November 2016, there was intense speculation as to whether he would receive an extension. As it happened, none was sought and after completing a regular tenure Raheel Sharif retired (only to court controversy as the military head of the Saudi-led military coalition of Arab and Asian Muslim countries, which pledged to fight Islamic State, among other terrorist groups). His successor, Gen. Javed Bajwa, was soon confronted by a spike in terrorist violence after several years of decline that saw major

attacks in Sindh, Khyber Pakhtunkhwa, Balochistan and Punjab. This led to the launch of a major army-led internal security operation in February 2017, which, in its first 24 hours, killed some 100 alleged terrorists in different parts of the country.

On the foreign policy front, Nawaz Sharif's efforts to restart normalization with India came to naught through the predictable actions of spoilers and the rise to power of Hindu nationalist premier Narendra Modi in India. Modi's anti-Pakistan rhetoric provided him with good publicity at home and a determined effort was made to try and isolate Pakistan. The Pakistani military, increasingly alarmed by Indian actions in Afghanistan and Balochistan, took a dim view of normalization prospects with India. Moreover, the breakdown of the ceasefire along the LoC, coupled with the eruption of anti-India protests in Indian-administered Kashmir in July 2016, further diminished prospects for normalization. Within Pakistan, the controversy over a report in daily newspaper *Dawn* about a secret meeting in which civilian leaders had allegedly taken the military to task for its relationship with radical Islamists, led to a government inquiry, the resignation of the information minister, and the resignation of the Prime Minister's Special Assistant for Foreign Affairs.

While relations with India remained crisis-prone, Pakistan moved forward with an ambitious new programme tied to Chinese President Xi Jinping's 'One Belt One Road' initiative. The China-Pakistan Economic Corridor, an agreement for which was signed in 2014, initially envisaged over US \$46,000m. in Chinese state and private sector investment in Pakistan's energy, infrastructure and agriculture sectors, and would ensure a permanent Chinese maritime presence in the Pakistani port cities of Gwadar and Karachi. China and Pakistan also stepped up military co-operation aimed at securing the inter-operability of their armed services. Meanwhile, declining terrorist violence at home, combined with a massive Chinese vote of confidence in Pakistan's economic future, sent the local stock markets soaring, with Pakistan re-entering the MSCI Emerging Markets Index in early 2017. Pakistan also exited the IMF programme in 2016 and showed substantial signs of economic revival, with annual GDP growth rising above 5% in that year for the first time in a decade. This improving trajectory did not, however, result in improved relations with the USA. Payments under the US's Enhanced Partnership With Pakistan Act, which the US Congress approved in 2010, ended in 2013, and as violence declined in Pakistan it escalated in Afghanistan, with the by now routine blame-game playing out in Washington, DC. Rather than building a strong stable relationship with Pakistan, US policy-makers (both Republican and Democrat) appeared committed to viewing their relationship with Islamabad through the lens of diminishing returns on their Afghan intervention. The election of Donald Trump to the US Presidency in November 2016 introduced a particularly unpredictable element in an already difficult relationship. By mid-2017 Pakistan was undergoing a policy review in Washington, DC and, given President Trump's executive order issued earlier in the year, which restricted immigration from Muslim countries affected by terrorism, there was a real possibility that Pakistan's major non-NATO ally status could be withdrawn.

PAKISTAN AT 70 AND BEYOND

As Pakistan marks its 70th anniversary as an independent state and enters its eighth decade, it faces many serious

challenges. Political order in Pakistan remains vulnerable to shocks and derailment. The structural imbalance generated by a civilian state apparatus that is often commanded by politicians apparently by whim, and an autonomous, highly professional, and popular military continues to evolve in favour of the latter. The emergence of a more assertive judiciary, media and civil society make it harder for military coups but also leave inept and often compromised political leaders vulnerable to criticism and exposure. The vulnerability of these leaders was graphically exposed by the fall of Nawaz Sharif in July 2017, when the Supreme Court disqualified him from office, after it emerged that he and his family had embezzled public funds for their personal enrichment. While the PML—N retained control of government in the form of Shahid Khaqan Abbasi, who was immediately sworn in as interim premier, with Nawaz's brother Shahbaz positioned eventually to assume the role, observers suggested that the balance of power was once again swinging in the military's favour, amid public impatience with a corrupt civilian political élite. A kind of political alternative to the patronage-dynastic parties has emerged in the PTI, but its appeal in the rural areas is limited and its message may not have as much resonance outside of major urban centres—the general election of 2018 will demonstrate the exact extent of its public appeal. There is a grave risk that if the electoral map is not readjusted in line with the 2017/18 census data and the 2018 elections are conducted on the basis of the old data (based on the 1998 census) then a major disconnect between parliamentary representation and popular sentiment could emerge, paving the way for serious discord.

The struggle against religious extremism is one that civilian actors other than the PPP and ANP and fringe elements in civil society and the media have yet to take up. Military operations have brought down the level of violence but they cannot substitute for comprehensive social change through education and social development. As the Quetta Commission report into attacks in that city in August 2016 (which killed around 70 people at a hospital, and was claimed by groups including the TTP and Islamic State) made clear, the civilian commitment to de-radicalization is weak and no systematic effort has been made to build civil administrative capacity over the past decade. The few positive developments, such as the passage of laws against sexual harassment, domestic violence and honour killings, as well as the lifting of the ban on the online video website YouTube, are more than offset by continued persecution of religious minorities, the open functioning of proscribed organizations, the disappearance of liberal bloggers, and the ideologically driven killings, such as the lynching of a student at a university in the north-western city of Mardan by his classmates for allegedly holding blasphemous opinions.

Pakistan's demography is likely to drive its politics and economics. At present, the territories that comprise Pakistan are estimated to have a population of 199m. people in mid-2017, compared to 32m. in 1951. By 2050 Pakistan may have as many as 350m.–400m. people. The overwhelming majority is, and will likely continue to be, poorly educated or uneducated, and forced to live in rural and urban slums in the context of dwindling natural resources. Whether or not Pakistan's leaders will be able to evolve beyond the politics of personal perpetuation and acquire the resolve and capacity for better governance will likely determine the country's fate in the 21st century. The next decade, in particular, will be critical to shaping the longer-term outcomes.